The Rat Race at Work: Technology and Burnout

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October 2026

Abstract

Artificial intelligence can raise employee productivity, but empirical evidence suggests it may also intensify work. This paper studies how productivity-enhancing technology impacts employee welfare, accounting for employees' strategic work decisions and risk of burnout. We develop a model in which employees' productivity increases in both technology quality and their chosen work intensity. High work intensity causes employee strain to accumulate more quickly, raising the hazard rate of burnout, at which point the employee's output falls to zero. We show that when employees' pay is sufficiently sensitive to their output relative to peers, better technology can lead to a competitive "rat race" that induces more work. As a result, employee welfare can initially decrease in technology quality due to intensified competition, but eventually rebound as competition cools and employees reap the productivity benefits of the technology. For the firm, the possibility of burnout can lead to decreasing marginal returns to technology; in the absence of burnout, firm profit is convex in technology quality. When the firm chooses employee performance incentives, a reduction in the underlying burnout hazard can lead to a higher risk of burnout and lower employee welfare in equilibrium. Finally, when technology quality is low, a profit-maximizing firm may invest more in burnout mitigation than a social welfare-maximizing firm, which instead promotes welfare by suppressing workplace competition through weaker performance incentives.

1. Introduction

Technology is transforming the workplace: AI assistance has been shown to increase the quality or volume of employee output across several types of knowledge work, including professional writing, management consulting, customer support, and software development (Noy and Zhang, 2023; Dell'Acqua et al., 2023; Brynjolfsson et al., 2025; Cui et al., 2025).

Improvements in employee productivity, however, need not translate into lighter workloads. In fact, recent empirical evidence suggests AI may be having precisely the opposite effect: Jiang et al. (2025) find that workers in occupations with greater AI exposure work longer hours, with stronger effects when AI complements employee work. Similarly, Ranganathan and Ye (2026) find that employees at a technology firm took on more tasks and worked longer hours following the adoption of AI – often without being asked – and a study of workplace activity data finds that time spent on email and messaging increased sharply after AI adoption (ActivTrak Productivity Lab, 2026).

Why might a technology that boosts productivity lead to *more* work? One explanation is competition: When employees are evaluated based on their performance relative to peers, better technology can make production easier for everyone, leading employees to work harder for the same rewards.[1] This type of strategic overwork can create a "rat race" in which employees work harder to preserve their position relative to coworkers, even though they would collectively prefer a less demanding equilibrium (Nalebuff and Stiglitz, 1983; Landers et al., 1996). OpenAI CEO Sam Altman makes a similar prediction about how AI will affect work: "It's like a relative game. People are very focused on how they're doing relative to other people . . . I think we're all going to be much busier than we thought we were supposed to be" (Altman, 2026).

This paper asks two questions. First, how does productivity-enhancing technology affect employee welfare in competitive workplaces? Second, to what extent can improved work conditions protect employees from the costs of this competition?

Evaluating employees relative to their peers is common, particularly in the technology sector. In 2025, Meta set a target for teams with at least 150 employees to place 15 to 20 percent of employees in the lowest performance category, and described the review process as an opportunity to make exit decisions (Dixit and Mann, 2025). Microsoft and Amazon have also used similar ranking systems (Eichenwald, 2012; Soper, 2022). However, ranking-based systems are not necessary for employees to compete: Bonuses, raises, and promotions are often limited, so employees may recognize that compensation and career advancement implicitly depend on how their performance compares with coworkers'. In such settings, an across-the-board productivity gain from technology can make workplace competition more intense, even when the firm leaves its performance incentive system unchanged.

Whether better technology compels employees to work more is consequential because higher workloads impose costs on both firms and employees. In particular, excessive work may lead to employee *burnout*, which refers to the exhaustion and reduced effectiveness caused by chronic workplace stress (World Health Organization, 2019; Maslach et al., 2001). For the firm, burnout can reduce productive capacity through lower work quality, increased sickness absence, or employee departures (Corbeanu et al., 2023; Schaufeli et al., 2009; Salvagioni et al., 2017). One estimate places the annual cost of burnout at approximately $5 million for an average U.S. company with 1,000 employees, largely through missed work (Martinez et al., 2025). Technological progress can therefore create an operational tradeoff: It can raise individual employee productivity, but can also intensify work and increase burnout, reducing the firm's productive capacity.

In recognition of the costs imposed by burnout, many firms explicitly invest in employee well-being, with workplace wellness programs now covering more than 50 million U.S. workers (Jones et al., 2019). For

[1] Nalebuff and Stiglitz (1983) note this possibility, although do not formally analyze it.

example, HubSpot combines coaching, therapy, and meditation in what it calls a "long-term framework to prevent and battle burnout" (HubSpot, 2021), and Salesforce and Adobe reimburse employees for activities that support mental well-being (Hyder, 2022; Adobe, 2026). Many companies view employee well-being as a strategic priority: In a Deloitte survey, 83 percent of executives said well-being should be discussed by the board (Fisher et al., 2023). Beyond wellness programs, firms can also reduce burnout by changing the work environment itself, for example, by giving employees greater flexibility over their work schedules (Moen et al., 2016; Kelly and Moen, 2020). Changes to organizational culture, such as improved support from supervisors and coworkers, may also weaken the link between job demands and burnout (Bakker et al., 2005). Whether through wellness programs or changes to the work environment, burnout mitigation may become increasingly important if technological improvements indeed intensify work.

1.1. Summary of Model and Results

We develop a single-period, continuous-time model of a firm with a team of n identical employees who simultaneously choose their work intensities at the start of the period. Employee output increases in their work intensity, duration of work, and technology quality. Employees face relative-performance incentives, which reward them based on both their absolute output and output relative to the team average. We model employee burnout through a time-to-failure process in which greater work intensity raises the hazard rate of burnout, and a burnout event imposes a fixed cost on the employee and ends their production for the remainder of the period. The firm's payoff is total output less employee payments, making burnout costly for the firm through reduced production. We consider three settings: one in which the strength of the relative-performance incentive is fixed, one in which the firm chooses it, and one in which the firm jointly chooses the incentive and invests in burnout mitigation.

We first examine how technology affects employee welfare when relative-performance incentives are fixed. When the productivity boost from technology is modest, a further improvement creates a "rat race effect" that erodes employee welfare: Employees work more intensely to keep up with coworkers who they anticipate will become more productive, and the resulting strain outweighs the direct benefit of better technology. However, when the gains from the technology are substantial, employees may benefit from further improvements in technology. Intuitively, better technology amplifies the performance advantage of the employees who remain productive when a coworker burns out, allowing them to earn large relative-performance rewards simply by avoiding burnout. This "strategic survival" behavior weakens the marginal incentive to work intensely, leading equilibrium work intensity to rise more slowly – or decline – in technology quality. This "survival effect" cools workplace competition, allowing the direct productivity benefit of better technology to dominate and employee welfare to rebound.

We next consider how the firm's returns to technology are shaped by employees' risk of burnout and relative-performance incentives, both of which influence their strategic work decisions. Without burnout, better technology both raises the value of completed work and induces employees to work more intensely. These direct and strategic effects reinforce one another, making firm profit convex in technology quality. With the possibility of burnout, however, firm returns to technology may instead be decreasing, due to the strategic moderation of work intensity described above. This result lends additional theoretical support to the idea that the organizational environment of a firm can shape how it benefits from technology (Brynjolfsson and Hitt, 2000), here through the lens of employee incentives and well-being.

If technology intensifies work, then employees might look to improved work conditions (e.g., flexible hours) for protection. However, we show that when performance incentives are chosen by the firm, a reduction in the baseline burnout hazard can lead to a higher risk of burnout and lower employee welfare in equilibrium. The intuition is that a lower hazard keeps employees productive for longer at a given work intensity, making the firm's productive capacity more secure. The firm's response is then to demand even more work from employees, which it does by strengthening the relative-performance incentive, thereby intensifying competition. When the baseline burnout hazard parameter is sufficiently low, the resulting increase in employee work intensity more than offsets the direct reduction in the hazard, making employees more likely to burn out. The stronger performance incentive does not offset these costs, and employee welfare falls despite the improvement in work conditions. Improvements in work conditions can thus leave employees worse off than before when the firm can freely adjust incentives.

Finally, we consider a setting where the firm jointly chooses the employees' relative-performance incentive and an investment in burnout mitigation that lowers the baseline burnout hazard. We benchmark the optimal design of a profit-maximizing firm against that of a welfare-maximizing firm, which maximizes the sum of firm profit and employee welfare. When technology quality is low, the profit-maximizing firm invests *more* in burnout mitigation than the welfare-maximizing firm, which instead chooses a weaker incentive to suppress employee competition and limit burnout. Because moderating competition sacrifices output, this pattern arises at low technology levels, where the output loss is limited; when technology quality is high, we find numerically that the welfare-maximizing firm invests more in mitigation than the profit-maximizing firm. These findings suggest that mitigation spending alone can be a misleading indicator of how well a workplace protects its employees, and that for a welfare-conscious firm, it may be more efficient to weaken relative-performance incentives than to spend aggressively on mitigation (e.g., through wellness programs).

1.2. Related Literature

This paper relates to the people-centric operations literature, which studies the links between employee behavior, well-being, and operational performance (Boudreau et al., 2003; Roels and Staats, 2021; Corbett, 2024). This line of work has shown that workers adjust their pace to system load and coworkers' pace (Schultz et al., 1998; KC and Terwiesch, 2009), and that excessive workloads can reduce productivity and service quality (Tan and Netessine, 2014; Kuntz et al., 2015; Berry Jaeker and Tucker, 2017) and increase absenteeism (Green et al., 2013). Prior work has also examined how fatigue, supplier audits, and process-safety improvements affect worker performance and well-being (Bavafa and Jónasson, 2024; Jiao et al., 2026; Bakshi and Peura, 2022). We extend this literature by focusing on how technological progress can impact employee welfare.

We also connect to a rich literature on the use of relative performance evaluation to motivate employee effort, which includes rank-order tournaments (Lazear and Rosen, 1981; Green and Stokey, 1983; Connelly et al., 2014) and more general incentive contracts (Nalebuff and Stiglitz, 1983; Mookherjee, 1984). Green and Rahmani (2022) compare how relative and absolute rating systems shape employee effort and worker payoffs. Performance-based pay has been found to raise worker output (Lazear, 2000), and feedback on relative performance can change how much employees work (Casas-Arce and Martínez-Jerez, 2009; Song et al., 2018). This paper is closest to studies of the unintended consequences of performance incentives, which can encourage workers to undermine coworkers (Lazear, 1989), increase stress and burnout (Habel et al., 2021), or push workers to overexert (Landers et al., 1996; Greiner et al., 2026).

Our model is motivated by prior empirical work on employee burnout, which has identified workload and job demands as main factors (Cordes and Dougherty, 1993; Maslach et al., 2001; Schaufeli and Bakker, 2004), and shown that improvements in employee health may boost productivity (Gubler et al., 2018). Burnout is costly for both employees and firms and is associated with worse job performance (Corbeanu et al., 2023), and workplace stress is associated with significant healthcare costs Goh et al. (2016). Improved work conditions, such as greater employee autonomy and strong supervisor relationships, can buffer the effect of job demands on burnout (Bakker et al., 2005). Our model captures this distinction by separating employees' chosen work intensity from the baseline burnout hazard, which reflects work conditions and prior investments in burnout mitigation. Prior analytical models have examined how requests from managers can lead to burnout (Matros et al., 2026), and how overwork can drive attrition (Waiser et al., 2025).

More broadly, a growing empirical literature examines how new workplace technologies affect employee welfare. AI assistance has been shown to improve task satisfaction and lower employee attrition

(Noy and Zhang, 2023; Brynjolfsson et al., 2025), but new technologies can also raise work demands, leading to more overtime and greater work intensity (Giebel and Lammers, 2025), expectations of constant availability (Mazmanian et al., 2013), and longer workdays with less leisure, particularly in more competitive labor and product markets (Jiang et al., 2025). We complement this work with a theoretical model of how AI interacts with employees' performance incentives to shape welfare.

Lastly, this paper relates to the operations management literature on how AI changes the nature of work. This literature has examined how the benefits of AI depend on how tasks are allocated between humans and AI, how their interaction is designed, and their relative capabilities (Fügener et al., 2026; Fang et al., 2026; Hu et al., 2026). Dizdarer et al. (2025) study how AI changes firms' mix of employees and contractors. AI assistance can increase the cognitive effort and time pressure that workers face (Boyacı et al., 2024, 2026; Legros and de Véricourt, 2026). Other work studies how AI interacts with worker incentives: Dai and Taylor (2026) examine how firms jointly design AI systems and employee incentives, and Lu and Tomlin (2026) and Guan et al. (2025) show that limiting AI disclosure or precision can preserve workers' incentives to acquire information Bastani and Cachon (2025) show that more reliable AI can make human oversight more costly to induce, and Siderius et al. (2026) show that better AI can weaken workers' incentives to check its output, causing skill atrophy. Much of this work has focused on a single employee; we extend this by abstracting away from the details of how AI drives task-level productivity and focusing on how it changes strategic behavior among multiple employees.

2. Model

Consider a firm with a single team of $n \geq 3$ ex ante identical employees, indexed by $i = 1, \ldots, n$. Team size n is fixed. There is one period, normalized to unit length, with continuous time $t \in [0, 1]$. At the beginning of the period, all employees simultaneously choose their work intensities $x_i \in [0, \infty)$, where x_i measures work effort supplied per unit of time while productive. Higher intensity may reflect longer working hours, greater effort per hour, or both.

Let $\tau_i(x_i) \in (0, 1]$ denote the time for which employee i remains productive during the period. If employee i does not burn out during the period, then $\tau_i(x_i) = 1$. If $\tau_i(x_i) < 1$, employee i stops producing for the rest of the period, with no recovery or reassignment of work. This captures episodes such as extended sickness absence or disengagement (Schaufeli et al., 2009; Cordes and Dougherty, 1993).[2] Completed work is therefore $x_i \tau_i(x_i)$.

[2]We conjecture that milder forms of burnout, in which an employee continues to produce at reduced quality, would temper the main results but not change them qualitatively.

2.1. Technology Quality and Performance Incentives

All employees use a common technology of quality $\theta \in [1, \theta^m]$, where $\theta^m > 1$ is an upper bound on technology quality. We assume throughout that θ is determined by external forces (e.g., market-wide advances in AI), and is thus exogenous. Technology multiplies the output produced by work: Employee i's realized output as a function of work intensity is $y_i(x_i) \equiv \theta x_i \tau_i(x_i)$, and $\mathbf{y}(\mathbf{x}) = (y_1(x_1), \ldots, y_n(x_n))$ is the realized output profile across workers. This multiplicative specification follows Nalebuff and Stiglitz (1983) and is also consistent with an O-ring production technology (Kremer, 1993), which has been widely used to model productivity gains from AI (Gans and Goldfarb, 2025).

The employee is paid for their realized output y_i; we normalize payment per unit of output to 1. The firm values each unit of output at $v > 1$. Motivated by the tournament and multi-agent contracting literature, we also allow compensation to depend on performance relative to coworkers (Lazear and Rosen, 1981; Nalebuff and Stiglitz, 1983; Mookherjee, 1984). We do so by including a relative-performance component of employee pay, r_i, so the firm's total payment to the employee is $y_i(x_i) + r_i$.

To define r_i, for any $z \in \mathbb{R}$, write $(z)_+ \equiv \max\{z, 0\}$. Let $\bar{y} = n^{-1} \sum_j y_j$ denote average output across the team, and let $\gamma \geq 0$ denote the strength of the relative-performance incentive, equivalently the relative-output advantage at which relative-performance pay reaches its maximum. Employee i's relative-performance pay is then

$$r_i(\mathbf{y}) = \int_0^{y_i - \bar{y}} (\gamma - z)_+ \, dz. \tag{1}$$

We use (1) as a tractable approximation to relative pay schedules used by firms – it rewards performance relative to the team average, with r_i capped at a level that depends on γ; a larger γ rewards high performers more aggressively. For simplicity, we refer to γ as the *incentive*. All parties are risk neutral.

2.2. Work and Burnout

Prior models of worker burnout are limited. Inspired by time-to-failure models in reliability engineering (e.g., Barlow and Proschan, 1965), we assume an employee working at intensity x_i burns out at *hazard rate* $\rho x_i^\alpha t^{\alpha-1}$, with $\rho > 0$ and $\alpha > 2$.[3] This leads to a Weibull time-to-failure model (Weibull, 1951), censored at the end of the period: for $t \in [0, 1]$, $\Pr(\tau_i(x_i) < t \mid x_i) = 1 - \exp\{-\int_0^t \rho x_i^\alpha s^{\alpha-1} \, ds\} = 1 - e^{-\rho(x_i t)^\alpha/\alpha}$. Employees who remain productive throughout the period have $\tau_i(x_i) = 1$.

In this model, $\rho > 0$ is the burnout *exposure* parameter. It scales the hazard rate at a given work intensity, reflecting the prevailing work conditions. For example, two teams may sustain the same pace

[3]The restriction $\alpha > 2$ is a technical condition that ensures that the firm's optimal induced work intensity in Sections 4 and 5 is finite.

of work while differing in employees' control over their work schedules (Moen et al., 2016) or in the support available from coworkers and supervisors (Cordes and Dougherty, 1993; Demerouti et al., 2001; Bakker et al., 2005). We represent the effect of these conditions through ρ, which is common across employees. Treating ρ as common captures shared work conditions within the team.

We refer to $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x_i)]$ as the *mean burnout time*. For fixed α, a lower mean burnout time corresponds to a higher probability of burnout during the period. The variables $\tau_i(x_i)$ are independent across employees conditional on work intensity x_i. The burnout hazard specification and all model parameters are common knowledge. Figure 1 shows the cumulative burnout probability for different levels of exposure and work intensity, holding $\alpha = 3$ fixed.

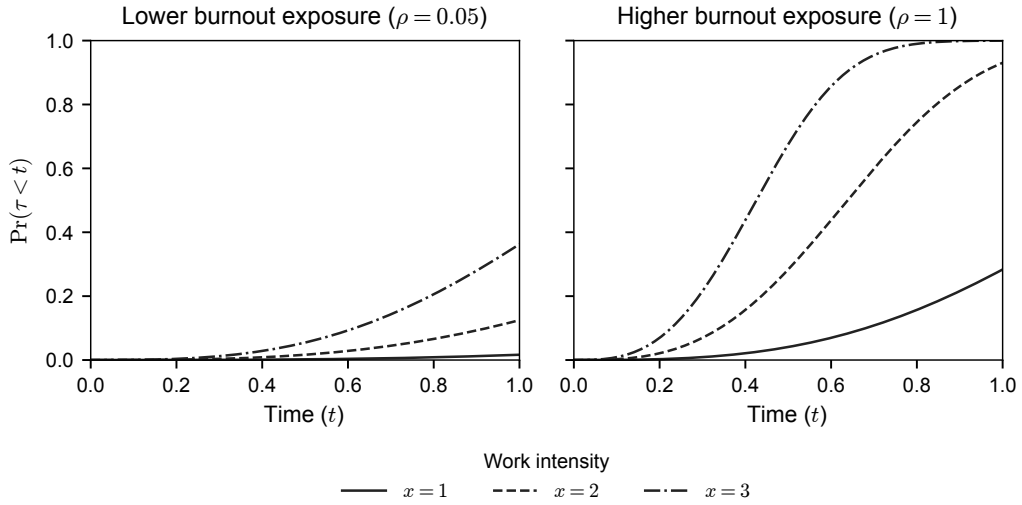


Figure 1: Cumulative distribution functions of random burnout time under varying burnout exposure levels (ρ) and work intensities (x), with $\alpha = 3$.

An active employee bears the instantaneous work cost $x_i^\alpha t^{\alpha-1}$ (i.e., work cost is linear in accumulated strain, with cost per unit of strain normalized to 1). Burnout imposes an employee cost $\phi^w > 0$, which captures its health and career consequences (Goh et al., 2016; Salvagioni et al., 2017). A burnout episode also imposes a burnout cost $\phi^f > 0$ on the firm, which captures expenses such as employer-funded counseling or administrative costs associated with an employee's absence or departure.

2.3. Equilibrium

An employee's total expected work cost over the period is $\mathbb{E}[\int_0^{\tau_i(x_i)} x_i^\alpha t^{\alpha-1}\,dt \mid x_i]$. Taking coworkers' intensities $\mathbf{x}_{-i}$ as given, employee i chooses x_i to maximize expected compensation net of work and burnout costs:

$$u_i(x_i, \mathbf{x}_{-i}) \equiv \mathbb{E}\Bigg[\underbrace{y_i(x_i) + r_i(\mathbf{y}(\mathbf{x}))}_{\text{Absolute and relative pay}} - \underbrace{\int_0^{\tau_i(x_i)} x_i^\alpha t^{\alpha-1}\,dt}_{\text{Work cost}} - \underbrace{\phi^w \mathbf{1}\{\tau_i(x_i) < 1\}}_{\text{Burnout cost}} \;\Bigg|\; \mathbf{x} \Bigg]. \tag{2}$$

We suppress dependence on θ, ρ, and γ in the function notation above. Here, $\mathbf{1}\{\tau_i(x_i) < 1\}$ equals one if employee i burns out and zero otherwise. A work intensity that maximizes this expected payoff is a best response to $\mathbf{x}_{-i}$. Total expected employee welfare for an arbitrary intensity profile is then $\sum_{i=1}^n u_i(x_i, \mathbf{x}_{-i})$. The firm's profit is output value less employee payments and burnout costs. Its expected value is

$$\pi(\mathbf{x}) \equiv \mathbb{E}\Bigg[\sum_{i=1}^n \Big(\underbrace{v y_i(x_i)}_{\text{Output value}} - \underbrace{\big[y_i(x_i) + r_i(\mathbf{y}(\mathbf{x}))\big]}_{\text{Absolute and relative pay}} - \underbrace{\phi^f \mathbf{1}\{\tau_i(x_i) < 1\}}_{\text{Burnout cost}} \Big) \;\Bigg|\; \mathbf{x} \Bigg]. \tag{3}$$

A pure-strategy Nash equilibrium is an intensity profile in which every employee's intensity is a best response to coworkers' intensities. Formally, $\mathbf{x}^*$ is an equilibrium if $u_i(x_i^*, \mathbf{x}_{-i}^*) \geq u_i(z, \mathbf{x}_{-i}^*)$ for all $z \geq 0$ and $i = 1, \ldots, n$. Intensities are chosen before burnout is realized, so outputs and payoffs remain random at the time of choice.

Lemma 1. *The work-intensity game has a unique and symmetric Nash equilibrium. The equilibrium intensity x^* is the unique $x > 0$ that satisfies*

$$(1 + \rho\phi^w) x^{\alpha-1} = \theta + \frac{n-1}{n}\theta\, \mathbb{E}\left[\left(\gamma - \frac{\theta x}{n} \sum_{j=1}^{n-1} [1 - \tau_j(x)] \right)_+ \right]. \tag{4}$$

The equilibrium condition balances the pay from additional work against its strain and burnout costs. The term $x[1 - \tau_j(x)]$ captures the work lost when coworker j burns out, which gives employees who remain productive a relative-performance advantage. We write the symmetric equilibrium profile as $\mathbf{x}^* = (x^*, \ldots, x^*)$, and the equilibrium mean burnout time as $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x^*)]$. At this profile, summing (2) gives equilibrium employee welfare $W^* \equiv \sum_{i=1}^n u_i(x_i^*, \mathbf{x}_{-i}^*)$, while (3) gives firm profit $\Pi^* \equiv \pi(\mathbf{x}^*)$. We suppress parameter dependence in these equilibrium quantities unless needed explicitly.

3. Technology, Employee Welfare, and Firm Profit

We begin by considering how improvements in technology quality θ influence employees' work intensity (Section 3.1), employee welfare (Section 3.2), and firm profit (Section 3.3). We hold the incentive γ fixed in this section.

3.1. Impact of Technology on Work Intensity

How employees adjust their work intensity is central to how technology affects both employees and the firm. Work intensity determines not only how much employees produce, but also how quickly they accumulate strain and how likely they are to burn out. Lemma 2 characterizes how employees' work-intensity response to improving technology depends on relative-performance incentives.

Lemma 2 (Rat race effect)**.** *Let $\bar{\gamma}_R \equiv n/(n-1)$. The following statements hold.*

(i) If $\gamma \in [0, \bar{\gamma}_R]$, then equilibrium work intensity x^* strictly increases and mean burnout time $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x^*)]$ strictly decreases in technology quality θ on $[1, \theta^m]$.

(ii) Suppose $\theta^m > 1+\bar{\gamma}_R$. For each $\gamma \in (\bar{\gamma}_R, \theta^m - 1)$, there exists an exposure threshold $\bar{\rho} > 0$ such that if $\rho > \bar{\rho}$, there are burnout-cost thresholds $0 \leq \underline{\phi}^w < \overline{\phi}^w$ with the following property: If $\phi^w \in (\underline{\phi}^w, \overline{\phi}^w)$, then x^* strictly decreases and $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x^*)]$ strictly increases in θ on $[\bar{\theta}, \theta^m]$ for some $\bar{\theta} \in (1, \theta^m)$.

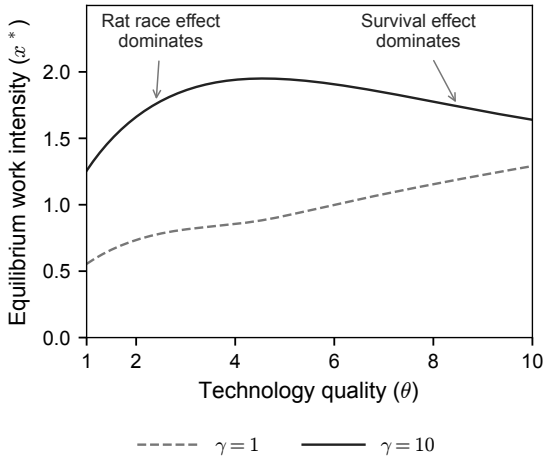


Figure 2: Technology and equilibrium work intensity under weaker ($\gamma = 1$) and stronger ($\gamma = 10$) performance incentives. Dashed and solid lines depict behavior described in parts (i) and (ii) of Lemma 2, respectively. Parameters: $\alpha = 3$, $n = 10$, $\rho = 10$, $\phi^w = 0.5$, $\theta^m = 12$.

Figure 2 illustrates the two cases, holding all parameters except γ fixed. To understand Lemma 2, it is helpful to consider the two effects induced by an increase in technology quality θ. The first is a "rat race effect": Each employee anticipates that better technology will raise their coworkers' output, which

creates an incentive to work more intensely to avoid falling behind (and being penalized through the relative-performance component of pay). However, better technology can also induce a "survival effect": When coworker j burns out, they lose $\theta x[1-\tau_j(x)]$ units of output, which lowers the team average and gives employees who remain productive a relative-performance advantage. Better technology magnifies this advantage and reduces the payoff from working harder. In other words, employees can benefit simply by remaining productive and avoiding burnout, and this strategic survival behavior leads them to moderate their work intensity.

The difference between parts (i) and (ii) of Lemma 2 depends on which of the two effects dominates. When relative-performance incentives are weak ($\gamma \leq \bar{\gamma}_R$), relative pay is too small a component of compensation for the survival effect to offset the higher return to work, so work intensity increases in θ (Lemma 2(i)). In contrast, when incentives are strong ($\gamma > \bar{\gamma}_R$) and burnout exposure is high ($\rho > \bar{\rho}$), coworker burnout meaningfully affects each employee's work decision. The upper bound on ϕ^w ensures that employees still work intensely enough for coworker burnout to create a substantial relative-performance advantage; the lower bound limits work intensity so that the relative-performance component of pay remains below the maximum amount. The net result is that the survival effect dominates at high technology levels, and work intensity decreases in θ (Lemma 2(ii)). In both cases, equilibrium mean burnout time $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x^*)]$ moves in the opposite direction to x^* because $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x)]$ decreases in x at a fixed ρ (Lemma 3).

Lemma 2 may help explain recent evidence that AI is associated with longer working hours and more tasks (Jiang et al., 2025; Ranganathan and Ye, 2026). Better technology can create a rat race: Employees work more intensely in anticipation of being compared against more productive coworkers. However, the result also suggests that this effect may not continue as technology improves further. In highly competitive workplaces where burnout is common, employees may instead reduce their work intensity, because they stand to benefit by simply avoiding burnout. Whether better technology leads to more work therefore depends on the strength of the relative-performance comparison and how readily intensive work leads to burnout.

3.2. Impact of Technology on Employee Welfare

Equipped with Lemma 2, we can now examine how employee welfare and firm profit respond to changes in technology quality. Because better technology makes each unit of work more productive, one might expect employees to benefit, and AI assistance has indeed been shown to improve task satisfaction and lower attrition in some settings (Noy and Zhang, 2023; Brynjolfsson et al., 2025). Yet whether employees are better off also depends on how much more they work to produce the additional output. We find that when relative-performance incentives are strong, better technology can lower employee

welfare even though it makes every employee more productive:

Proposition 1 (Technology and employee welfare)**.** *Let* $\bar{\gamma}_W \equiv n(\alpha-1)/(n-1)$*. The following statements hold.*

(i) In the absence of burnout, $\rho = 0$*, employee welfare* W^* *is strictly increasing, constant, or strictly decreasing in* θ *on* $[1, \theta^m]$ *according as* $\gamma < \bar{\gamma}_W$*,* $\gamma = \bar{\gamma}_W$*, or* $\gamma > \bar{\gamma}_W$*.*

(ii) For any $\gamma > \bar{\gamma}_W$ *and* $\phi^w > 0$*, sufficiently high exposure* ρ *implies that* W^* *strictly decreases in* θ *on* $[1, \theta_1]$ *for some* $\theta_1 \in (1, \theta^m)$*.*

(iii) For each $\gamma > \bar{\gamma}_W$*, there exists a threshold* $\bar{\phi}^w > 0$ *such that if* $\phi^w \in (0, \bar{\phi}^w)$*, then for sufficiently large* ρ *there exist a finite* $\theta^m > 1$ *and thresholds* $1 < \theta_1 < \theta_2 < \theta^m$ *with the following property:* W^* *strictly decreases in* θ *on* $[1, \theta_1]$*, while equilibrium work intensity* x^* *strictly decreases, and mean burnout time* $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x^*)]$ *and* W^* *strictly increase on* $[\theta_2, \theta^m]$*. Consequently,* W^* *has at least one interior minimum over* $[1, \theta^m]$*.*

Proposition 1(i) shows that strong relative-performance incentives alone can make technological progress harmful to employees. In the absence of burnout, all employees produce the same output, so competition induces additional work without generating any relative-performance pay. To unpack the intuition with burnout, let $\widehat{W}(x, \theta)$ denote total employee welfare when all employees choose the same work intensity x, holding ρ and γ fixed. Because equilibrium welfare is $W^* = \widehat{W}(x^*, \theta)$, the total effect of better technology on welfare can be decomposed as

$$\frac{dW^*}{d\theta} = \underbrace{\frac{\partial \widehat{W}}{\partial \theta}}_{\text{Direct technology effect}} + \underbrace{\frac{\partial \widehat{W}}{\partial x}\frac{dx^*}{d\theta}}_{\text{Strategic work-intensity effect}}. \tag{5}$$

Under the conditions in parts (ii) and (iii), the direct technology effect is positive, so the direction of the total effect depends on the strategic work-intensity effect. When burnout exposure is high and technology quality is low, work intensity is low and coworker burnout is rare. In this regime, the rat race effect described following Lemma 2 dominates, $dx^*/\,d\theta > 0$. This additional work lowers welfare, $\partial \widehat{W}/\partial x < 0$, because employees end up working more intensely than they would collectively prefer. The strong incentive $\gamma > \bar{\gamma}_W$ ensures that this strategic effect outweighs the direct benefit of better technology (Proposition 1(ii)).

In part (iii), a sufficiently small employee burnout cost ϕ^w allows work intensity – and hence coworker burnout – to rise fast enough for the survival effect to dominate at higher technology levels. Competition then cools and work intensity falls, $dx^*/\,d\theta < 0$. Both terms in (5) are then positive, and welfare recovers (Proposition 1(iii)). Note that falling intensity is sufficient but not necessary for this recovery:

Welfare can increase while intensity is still rising, provided competition has cooled enough for the direct effect to dominate. Figure 3 depicts a numerical example in which welfare begins to recover near $\theta = 3.3$, even as mean burnout time continues to fall.

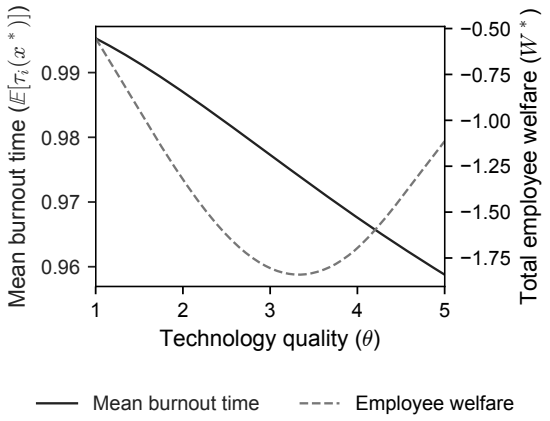


Figure 3: Employee outcomes under varying technology quality and a fixed incentive. Dashed line (right axis) illustrates the welfare decline and rebound described in Proposition 1(ii)–(iii); solid line (left axis) shows that employees burnout sooner as technology improves. Parameters: $\alpha = 3$, $n = 4$, $\gamma = 3$, $\rho = 0.01$, $\phi^w = 2$.

What does Proposition 1 imply for firms in which employees compete for rewards (e.g., through forced-ranking systems)? As technology progresses, such firms may see output rise while employee welfare falls, even if they leave their reward structure unchanged. Each employee works harder to keep up with more productive coworkers, even though all employees would benefit from collectively moderating their response. Employees' willingness to take on more work with AI (Ranganathan and Ye, 2026) may therefore reflect competitive pressure rather than productivity gains alone. Nonetheless, if the risk of burnout is strong enough to moderate employee competition, employees may still benefit from the productivity gains as technology improves.

3.3. Impact of Technology on Firm Profit

We now consider how technological progress affects firm profit. Because better technology both raises the value of completed work and induces more of it (Lemma 2), it is natural to expect the firm's marginal return to technology to rise as technology improves. In that case, the firm would enjoy increasing marginal returns to technology. Our next result shows that this intuition indeed holds in the absence of burnout, but that burnout risk can eventually reverse it.

Proposition 2 (Burnout and marginal returns to technology)**.** *The following statements hold.*

(i) In the absence of burnout risk, $\rho = 0$, the return to technology $d\Pi^*/d\theta$ is positive and strictly increases in θ on $[1, \theta^m]$.

(ii) For any $\gamma > 0$ and $\phi^w > 0$, sufficiently large ρ implies that, for sufficiently large v, the return to technology is positive and strictly increases in θ on $[1, \theta_1]$ for some $\theta_1 \in (1, \theta^m)$.

(iii) For each $\gamma > \bar{\gamma}_R$, there exists a threshold $\bar{\phi}^w > 0$ such that if $\phi^w \in (0, \bar{\phi}^w)$, then for sufficiently large ρ there exist a finite $\theta^m > 1$ and thresholds $1 < \theta_1 < \theta_2 < \theta^m$ with the following property: For sufficiently large v, the return to technology is positive and strictly increases on $[1, \theta_1]$, while it is positive and strictly decreases on $[\theta_2, \theta^m]$. On the latter interval, equilibrium work intensity x^* strictly decreases and mean burnout time $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x^*)]$ strictly increases. Consequently, $d\Pi^*/d\theta$ has at least one interior maximum over $[1, \theta^m]$.

Proposition 2 shows that burnout risk can turn increasing returns to technology into decreasing returns. To unpack the intuition, consider how the net value of employee output changes as θ increases. As in (5), this change consists of a direct effect, as each unit of work becomes more productive, and a strategic effect, as employees adjust their work intensity $x^*(\theta)$ and thereby change expected total work. The firm's marginal return to technology therefore depends on both expected total work and how work intensity responds to technology.

In the absence of burnout, the two effects reinforce one another. Better technology always intensifies the rat race, so equilibrium work intensity is proportional to $\theta^{1/(\alpha-1)}$, profit is proportional to $\theta^{\alpha/(\alpha-1)}$, and the marginal return rises with technology quality (Proposition 2(i)). With burnout, marginal returns can also increase initially. As in Proposition 1(ii), high exposure keeps work intensity low at low technology levels, so realized burnout is rare, and better technology encourages additional work. The marginal return then rises when the value of output is sufficiently high (Proposition 2(ii)).

At higher technology levels, however, strong relative-performance incentives allow coworker burnout to cool competition, and a sufficiently small employee burnout cost allows work intensity to reach a level at which this effect becomes important. As work intensity levels off and begins to decline, expected output continues to rise, but at a decreasing rate. A sufficiently high output value v makes this output effect dominate changes in employee payments and the firm's direct burnout cost ϕ^f. Note the parameters v and ϕ^f affect profit but not employees' work choices. As a consequence, technology continues to raise profit, but by progressively smaller amounts (Proposition 2(iii)). Figure 4 depicts a numerical example. Note that the marginal return peaks before work intensity does: A slowdown in the growth of work intensity is enough to diminish the firm's returns.

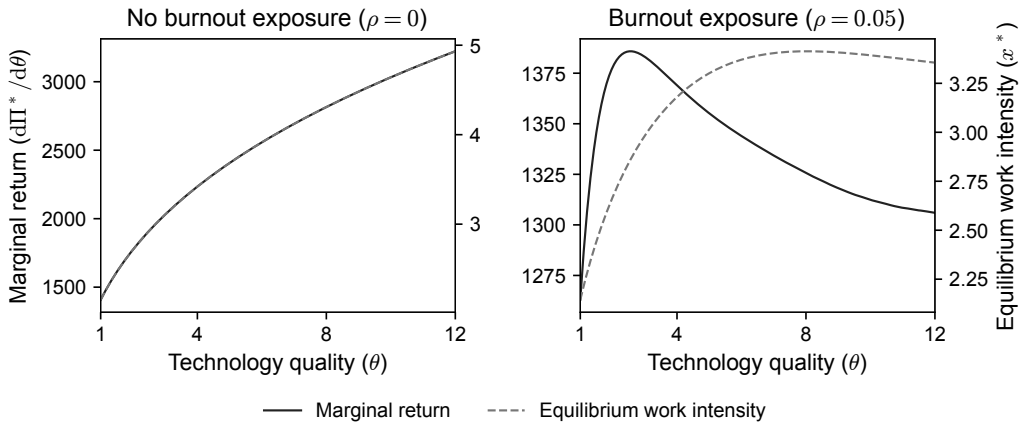


Figure 4: Marginal returns to technology with and without burnout exposure. Solid lines (left axes) depict behavior described in parts (i) and (ii)–(iii) of Proposition 2 in the left and right panels, respectively. Dashed lines (right axes) show equilibrium work intensity. Parameters: $\alpha = 4$, $n = 10$, $\gamma = 10$, $v = 50$, $\phi^w = \phi^f = 0.1$.

Proposition 2 cautions against extrapolating from early gains: In competitive workplaces where employees face burnout risk, further improvements in technology may yield progressively smaller returns. Importantly, these diminishing returns need not reflect limits of the technology itself. Instead, they may arise because employees moderate their work intensity as technology improves, anticipating that coworker burnout will give them a relative advantage. This behavior is consistent with evidence that contest leaders reduce effort as their lead grows (Casas-Arce and Martínez-Jerez, 2009).

To fully reap the benefits of technological progress, firms should therefore be mindful of how competition among employees adjusts to it. Because the survival effect can dominate under strong relative-performance incentives and high burnout exposure, the firm's returns to technology are shaped jointly by the competitiveness of its workplace and its work conditions. More broadly, our result lends support to the view that organizational practices shape the returns to technology (Brynjolfsson and Hitt, 2000).

4. Endogenous Performance Incentives

Section 3 shows that productivity-enhancing technology can intensify competition and reduce employee welfare. These effects may be tempered by improvements in work conditions, such as greater flexibility over work hours (Moen et al., 2016; Kelly and Moen, 2020), which we capture as a reduction in burnout exposure ρ. Such improvements are often determined outside the firm's incentive decision, for example by regulation or broader cultural changes in workplace norms. We therefore treat ρ as exogenous and ask: To what extent do improvements in work conditions benefit employees if the firm can adjust the performance incentive? We first hold technology quality θ fixed, allowing the firm to choose the incentive γ before employees choose their work intensities. We return to the role of technology quality θ at the end of the section.

The firm chooses incentive strength γ to maximize equilibrium profit:

$$\gamma^* \in \arg\max_{\gamma \geq 0} \Pi^*(\gamma).$$

We write x^*, W^*, and $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x^*)]$ for equilibrium work intensity, total employee welfare, and mean burnout time under this incentive. Proposition 3 characterizes the effect of an improvement in work conditions when the firm can freely adjust the incentive γ.

Proposition 3 (Burnout exposure and employee outcomes)**.** *Fix θ and $\phi^f > 0$. The following statements hold.*

(i) For any fixed incentive $\gamma > 0$, there exists an exposure threshold $\bar{\rho} > 0$ such that as ρ decreases within $(0, \bar{\rho})$, equilibrium work intensity x^* and mean burnout time $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x^*)]$ both strictly increase.

(ii) When the firm chooses the incentive γ, there exists an exposure threshold $\bar{\rho} > 0$ such that as ρ decreases within $(0, \bar{\rho})$, the optimal incentive γ^* and work intensity x^* strictly increase, while mean burnout time $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x^*)]$ and employee welfare W^* strictly decrease.

(iii) If $1 < (v-1)\phi^w/\phi^f < \alpha$, there exists an exposure threshold $\underline{\rho} > 0$ such that as ρ decreases within $(\underline{\rho}, \infty)$, the firm's optimal incentive induces strictly higher work intensity x^* and employee welfare W^*, but strictly lower mean burnout time $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x^*)]$.

Part (i) establishes a benchmark with a fixed incentive: Lower burnout exposure encourages employees to work more, but when exposure is already low, the protection offered by better work conditions is strong enough that mean burnout time still increases. Part (ii) shows that this benefit does not occur if the firm can choose its incentive. Instead, the firm increases γ, and the additional work it induces outweighs the improvement in work conditions from the decrease in ρ. As a consequence, equilibrium mean burnout time *falls* instead.

To understand why this occurs, it is helpful to consider the two effects of a reduction in burnout exposure ρ. The first is a direct "protection effect": At a fixed work intensity, lower exposure reduces the burnout hazard and keeps employees productive for longer. The second is an indirect "incentive ratcheting effect": Safer work conditions give the firm room to demand more from its employees, so it raises the incentive γ^* to induce a higher work intensity x^*. Thus, whether mean burnout time falls depends on whether work intensity increases by more than the factor needed to offset lower exposure. Under the conditions in part (ii), this factor is exceeded, so mean burnout time falls.[4]

[4]One may interpret part (ii) as a form of risk compensation (Peltzman, 1975), in which a safety improvement is offset by riskier behavior. Here, the riskier behavior is prompted by the firm: Its change in the incentive induces employees to work more, which more than offsets the safety improvement.

Why does the firm "overshoot" on work intensity and induce higher burnout risk? Under the conditions in part (ii), the firm balances the marginal return to additional intensity against the marginal employer burnout cost. Both contain the same survival factor $e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}$, which cancels in the first-order condition; the normalized marginal burnout cost is then $\phi^f \rho x^{\alpha-1}$ (see (20)). Lower exposure reduces this cost at a given intensity, inducing the firm to raise intensity. Burnout risk, however, depends on cumulative exposure $\rho x^\alpha/\alpha = (x/\alpha) \cdot \rho x^{\alpha-1}$. The firm's response raises intensity enough to increase cumulative exposure, making employees more likely to burn out.

Part (iii) shows that at sufficiently high burnout exposure, a decrease in exposure can improve employee welfare even as mean burnout time falls. The lower bound $(v-1)\phi^w > \phi^f$ ensures that the firm induces more work than employees would choose with $\gamma = 0$. The upper bound $(v-1)\phi^w < \alpha\phi^f$ ensures that the additional expected pay outweighs the increases in expected work and burnout costs as exposure falls. A decrease in mean burnout time can therefore accompany either a welfare gain or a welfare loss. The left panel of Figure 5 depicts both cases.

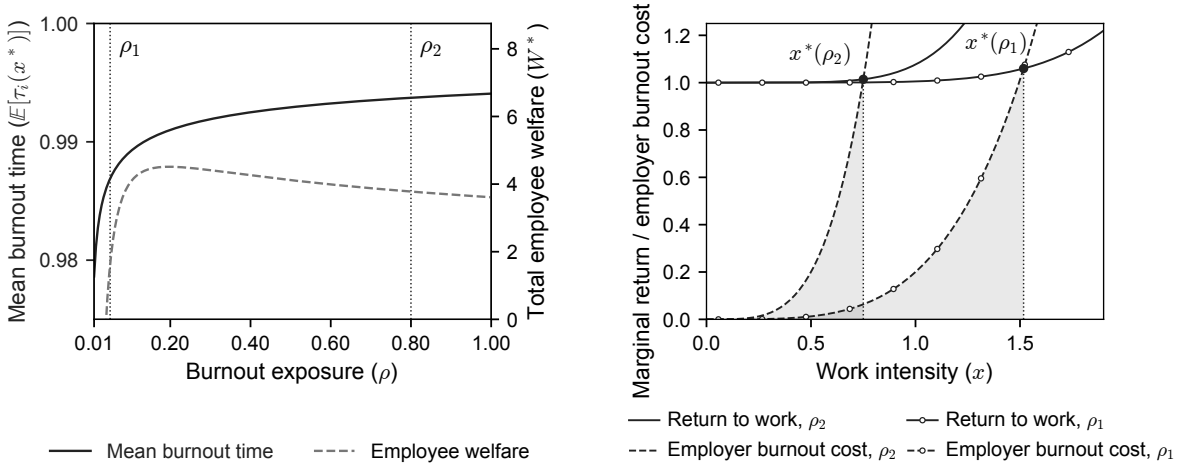


Figure 5: Burnout exposure and employee outcomes under the firm's optimal incentive. *Left panel*: The solid line (left axis) depicts the mean burnout time behavior in Proposition 3(ii)–(iii). The dashed line depicts the employee welfare behavior in parts (ii) and (iii). *Right panel*: The firm's marginal return (solid) and marginal employer burnout cost (dashed) intersect at its implemented work intensity. Shaded areas are proportional to the cumulative burnout hazard under each exposure level; larger areas thus correspond to earlier burnout in expectation. Parameters: $\alpha = 5$, $n = 4$, $\theta = 2$, $v = 1.5$, $\phi^w = 13.35$, $\phi^f = 4$; $\rho_1 = 0.05$ (circles) and $\rho_2 = 0.8$ (no markers).

The firm's control over the incentive also changes how technology affects employees:

Corollary 1 (Technology under endogenous incentives)**.** *Fix $\phi^f > 0$. When the firm chooses the incentive γ, there exists an exposure threshold $\bar{\rho} > 0$ such that, for any $\rho \in (0, \bar{\rho})$, equilibrium work intensity x^* strictly increases and mean burnout time $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x^*)]$ strictly decreases in technology quality θ on $[1, \theta^m]$.*

Corollary 1 shows that when exposure is sufficiently low, work intensity continues to rise and mean burnout time continues to fall as technology improves under the firm's optimal incentive. The decline in work intensity and increase in mean burnout time that can arise under fixed incentives in Section 3 is thus absent in this low-exposure region when the incentive is endogenous.

Proposition 3 adds an important caveat to the notion that improved work conditions can buffer employees against burnout (Bakker et al., 2005): Not only can the firm "optimize away" these protections by adjusting its performance incentives, but employees can be left worse-off under the improved work conditions because of how aggressively the firm responds. For employees, the benefit of greater flexibility or other preventive support therefore depends on whether the firm also raises performance expectations in tandem. Corollary 1 further suggests that an improvement in technology quality can drive the firm to create a more competitive environment, increasing burnout. These results suggest that policies improving work conditions should be evaluated by accounting for the firm's response: their direct benefits to employees must be weighed against the heightened pressure to perform the firm may impose in return.

5. Mitigation and Social Welfare

Investments in employee well-being, including wellness programs, provide a natural starting point for assessing how well a workplace protects its employees. However, Section 4 shows that work conditions and performance incentives are closely linked: When the environment improves, a profit-maximizing firm may respond by strengthening its incentive and inducing more work.

This section considers investment in burnout mitigation jointly with the choice of performance incentive. We compare a profit-maximizing firm with one that maximizes social welfare (i.e., the sum of firm profit and employee welfare). This benchmark reflects the choices of a regulator, or of a firm that fully internalizes employees' costs.

Formally, we allow the firm to choose the burnout exposure parameter ρ, a stylized representation of policy or investment choices, such as greater scheduling flexibility or employer-funded therapy. Let $C(\rho)$ denote the per-employee cost required to achieve ρ. The firm chooses ρ jointly with the performance incentive γ, after which employees choose their work intensities.

Assumption 1 (Burnout mitigation cost)**.** *Mitigation spending per employee is $C(\rho) > 0$, where C is continuously differentiable with $(\partial/\partial\rho)C(\rho) < 0$, $\lim_{\rho\to 0} \rho C(\rho) = \infty$, and $\lim_{\rho\to\infty} \rho C(\rho) = 0$.*

Assumption 1 imposes regularity conditions on $C(\rho)$ such that it is optimal for the firm to choose a strictly positive and finite value of ρ.

We consider both profit-maximizing and social welfare-maximizing objectives. Using the equilibrium profit Π^* obtained from (3), the profit-maximizing design $(\rho^F(\theta), \gamma^F(\theta))$ maximizes $\Pi^*(\rho, \gamma) - nC(\rho)$ over $\rho > 0$ and $\gamma \geq 0$. For social welfare, combining firm profit in (3) with the sum of employee utilities in (2), and subtracting mitigation spending, gives the social welfare objective

$$\Pi^*(\rho, \gamma) + W^*(\rho, \gamma) - nC(\rho). \tag{6}$$

Note that the employee payment terms cancel in the sum of firm profit and employee welfare. Each unit of output thus contributes its full gross value v to the social welfare objective in (6).

Let $(\rho^S(\theta), \gamma^S(\theta))$ denote any design that maximizes (6), and let τ_i^S and τ_i^F denote employee i's censored burnout times under the social welfare-maximizing and profit-maximizing designs, each evaluated at its own equilibrium intensity and exposure. Their means are $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i^S]$ and $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i^F]$. We suppress the dependence on θ when it is clear. To compare the designs under common work conditions, we also fix ρ and write $x^F(\rho)$ and $x^S(\rho)$ for the work intensities each design prefers when it chooses only γ, with associated incentives $\gamma^F(\rho)$ and $\gamma^S(\rho)$ and censored burnout times $\tau_i^F(\rho)$ and $\tau_i^S(\rho)$ evaluated at the common exposure ρ. Lemma 8 in Appendix A characterizes $x^S(\rho)$.

Proposition 4 characterizes the optimal choice of ρ and γ under both the profit- and social welfare-maximizing designs, and the implications for employees' equilibrium mean burnout times.

Proposition 4 (Social welfare and burnout mitigation)**.** *The following statements hold.*

(i) At any exposure $\rho > 0$, the profit-maximizing design induces at least as much work and competitive pressure, and no higher mean burnout time, than the social design: $x^F(\rho) \geq x^S(\rho)$, $\gamma^F(\rho) \geq \gamma^S(\rho)$, and $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i^F(\rho)] \leq \mathbb{E}[\tau_i^S(\rho)]$. All three inequalities are strict whenever $\gamma^S(\rho) > 0$.

(ii) Suppose Assumption 1 holds. There exist thresholds $\underline{\phi}^w > 0$, $\overline{\phi}^f > 0$, and $\underline{\theta} > 1$ such that if $\phi^w > \underline{\phi}^w$, $\phi^f \in (0, \overline{\phi}^f)$, and $\theta \in [1, \underline{\theta}]$, the social welfare-maximizing design spends less on mitigation $C(\rho^S) < C(\rho^F)$, leading to higher burnout exposure, $\rho^S > \rho^F$. It also chooses a weaker incentive, $\gamma^S < \gamma^F$, and induces higher mean burnout time, $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i^S] > \mathbb{E}[\tau_i^F]$.

Part (i) gives a comparison under the same work conditions: Stronger competition raises work intensity and reduces equilibrium employee welfare. A profit-maximizing firm therefore has a stronger reason to

induce work than a social welfare-maximizing one, which also counts employees' costs. Part (ii) gives sufficient conditions for a stronger comparison when both choices are endogenous: With large employee burnout costs, small employer burnout costs, and low technology quality, the social welfare-maximizing design spends less on mitigation while achieving higher mean burnout time.

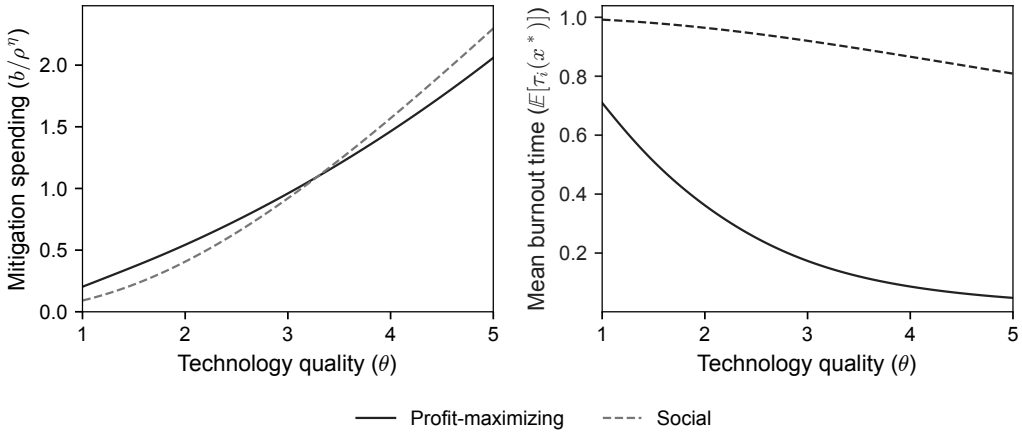


Figure 6: Comparison of profit-maximizing and social welfare-maximizing workplace designs. Numerical example uses mitigation cost function $C(\rho) = b/\rho^\eta$, which satisfies Assumption 1. Left panel: The social welfare design spends less on mitigation at low technology quality because it demands less work from employees. Right panel: Mean burnout time is lower under the profit-maximizing design (solid) than under the social welfare design (dashed), despite the latter's lower mitigation spending at low technology quality. Parameters: $\alpha = 3$, $n = 4$, $v = 3$, $\phi^w = 4$, $\phi^f = 0.25$, $b = 20$, $\eta = 1.5$.

The result in Proposition 4(ii) is driven by the different ways in which the two designs account for burnout. In the profit function Π^*, burnout affects expected total work, employee payments, and the employer burnout cost $n\phi^f \Pr(\tau_i(x^*) < 1)$. In contrast, the social welfare objective in (6) also counts employees' active-work cost, $n\rho^{-1} \Pr(\tau_i(x^*) < 1)$, and burnout loss, $n\phi^w \Pr(\tau_i(x^*) < 1)$. When ϕ^w is high and ϕ^f is low, the social design therefore has a stronger reason to reduce work, which it does by weakening the incentive ($\gamma^S < \gamma^F$).

Burnout mitigation is valuable only to the extent that there is work to protect. Because the social welfare design induces weaker competition (lower γ), and thus demands less work from employees, it does not need to spend as much on mitigation. When technology quality is low, the output sacrificed by reducing work is small, so the social welfare design prefers to reduce work in the first place rather than protect it ($\rho^S > \rho^F$). Although the higher exposure induced by the social welfare design raises the burnout hazard at a given work intensity, the reduction in work intensity is large enough that mean burnout time remains higher under the social welfare design, $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i^S] > \mathbb{E}[\tau_i^F]$. In summary, the incentive determines how much work is performed, and mitigation protects that work – a firm that internalizes employee welfare uses less of both in this parameter region.

In the numerical example in Figure 6, the profit-maximizing design induces a much lower mean burnout

time once technology quality is sufficiently high (parameters chosen to satisfy Proposition 4(ii)). In this example, the firm extracts the maximum work each employee can sustain and simply absorbs burnout as the cost of doing so. At higher technology quality, however, reducing work sacrifices more valuable output, and mitigation can become the better way to protect employees, which is why the social welfare design eventually spends more on mitigation when θ is large.

Proposition 4 implies that mitigation spending can be a misleading measure of employee protection. Under the conditions in part (ii), a profit-maximizing firm chooses to spend more on mitigation because it induces more intensive work through strong incentives and has more productivity to protect from burnout. A firm's spending on well-being may therefore reflect the demands it places on employees through induced competition, in addition to reflecting the firm's valuation of employee well-being.

6. Discussion

This paper offers theoretical grounding for early empirical evidence suggesting AI might intensify work (Jiang et al., 2025; Ranganathan and Ye, 2026). Our analysis focuses on three dimensions of the work environment: the extent to which the technology boosts productivity, how strongly employees' performance evaluations depends on relative standing within the organization, and the association between intensive work and burnout. Table 1 summarizes the main findings.

Table 1: Summary of main findings.

Dimension	Main Finding	Implication for Managers
Technology quality	With strong relative-performance incentives, better technology can intensify employee competition and lower welfare, though it may rebound as technology improves further (Proposition 1).	Productivity gains from AI may increase employee workloads under forced-ranking systems. Employees' willingness to take on more work may reflect competitive pressure rather than increased productivity alone.
Returns to technology	Burnout risk and relative-performance incentives can lead to decreasing marginal returns to technology for the firm (Proposition 2).	Smaller-than-expected gains from AI may reflect employees' strategic responses to the work environment, rather than limits of the technology itself.
Work conditions	Under endogenous incentives, a decrease in underlying burnout exposure may lead to a higher risk of burnout and lower welfare (Proposition 3).	Improvements in work conditions (e.g., flexible schedules) may be more effective when paired with a commitment not to raise performance expectations.
Wellness spending	When productivity gains from technology are modest, a profit-maximizing firm may spend more on burnout prevention than a social welfare-maximizing firm, yet induce a higher risk of burnout (Proposition 4).	Wellness spending alone can be a misleading measure of employee protection. Weakening relative-performance incentives may be a more welfare-efficient approach to protecting employees.

Performance management is increasingly a focus of organizations (Cappelli and Tavis, 2016). Our

findings suggest that these efforts should also account for how technology changes competition within teams. In particular, when employees are evaluated based on relative performance, productivity gains from AI may undermine employee welfare, even if firms leave their formal reward structures unchanged (Proposition 1). The model also generates new predictions that can be tested empirically: Burnout-related outcomes like absences or medical leaves should be more pronounced in organizations where employee rewards depend strongly on relative performance. For firms promoting AI usage, accounting for potentially adverse welfare effects may mean loosening forced-ranking quotas or placing more weight on other measures of performance, such as collaboration.

Firms' returns to productivity-enhancing technology may also depend on the dimensions of the work environment studied here (Proposition 2). In high-pressure environments where employee well-being is at risk, further improvements in technology may yield progressively smaller gains if employees strategically moderate their workloads. Crucially, this can occur not only because employees seek to protect themselves, but also because they anticipate burnout-driven declines in their coworkers' productivity. This offers an additional justification for investing in employee well-being – to fully reap the benefits of technological progress.

Policies that improve work conditions, such as greater schedule flexibility, may reduce burnout (Moen et al., 2016). However, if organizations respond by raising performance expectations, the additional work they demand can more than offset this protection, lowering employee welfare (Proposition 3). Kelly and Moen (2020) argue that reducing overload requires work redesign, including giving employees more control over how they work and clear direction on their goals. Our results add that organizations should commit to holding performance incentives fixed when work conditions improve, so that, when exposure is already sufficiently low, the improvement translates into lower burnout risk (Proposition 3(i)).

An organization's spending on wellness alone may not fully reflect how well it protects employees: An employer that demands intensive work has more productivity to defend, and so may spend more on burnout prevention than a welfare-conscious employer (Proposition 4). This suggests that wellness spending and burnout may be positively correlated across firms, consistent with evidence that wellness programs have had limited measurable effects on employee outcomes (Jones et al., 2019). Croft et al. (2024) attribute the muted impact of wellness programs to their focus on individual employees rather than broader work conditions. Our results support this view: When the productivity gains from technology are modest, moderating competition may be a more welfare-efficient approach to protecting employees than additional wellness spending.

Our model omits several features of real workplaces. Employees may differ in how effectively they use technology, one employee's burnout may shift work onto coworkers, and work intensity may change

over time. Incorporating these features may change our results or generate new ones. Firms may also use other levers, such as team-based rewards, which can dampen competition but introduce other challenges like free-riding. We also assume technology quality is exogenous; considering the firm's technology adoption decision and how it interacts with their performance evaluation system is a natural direction for future work.

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A Proofs

Lemma 3. *For $x > 0$ and $\rho > 0$, the following statements hold.*

(i) Completed work has survival function $\Pr(x\tau_i(x) > k) = e^{-\rho k^\alpha/\alpha}$ *for* $0 \le k < x$ *and zero for* $k \ge x$. *Thus,*

$$\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)] = \int_0^x e^{-\rho k^\alpha/\alpha}\, dk, \qquad \mathbb{E}[(x\tau_i(x))^2] = \int_0^x 2k\, e^{-\rho k^\alpha/\alpha}\, dk. \tag{7}$$

For every x, $\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)] \le c_\alpha \rho^{-1/\alpha}$ and $\mathbb{E}[(x\tau_i(x))^2] \le c_\alpha \rho^{-2/\alpha}$, where c_α depends only on α.

(ii) Completed work $x\tau_i(x)$ is stochastically increasing in x, and work lost to burnout $x[1-\tau_i(x)]$ is stochastically

increasing in x and ρ. Their expectations satisfy $(\partial/\partial x)\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)] = e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}$ and $(\partial/\partial x)\mathbb{E}[x(1-\tau_i(x))] = \left(1-e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}\right)$. Also, $(\partial/\partial x)\mathrm{Var}(x\tau_i(x)) = 2e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}\mathbb{E}[x(1-\tau_i(x))]$ and $(\partial/\partial x)(1-e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}) = \rho x^{\alpha-1}e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}$.

(iii) With respect to exposure, $\alpha\rho(\partial/\partial\rho)\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)] = xe^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha} - \mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)]$, $\alpha\rho(\partial/\partial\rho)\mathbb{E}[(x\tau_i(x))^2] = 2\{x^2e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha} - \mathbb{E}[(x\tau_i(x))^2]\}$, and $(\partial/\partial\rho)(1-e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}) = x^\alpha e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}/\alpha$. Consequently,

$$\alpha\rho(\partial/\partial\rho)\mathrm{Var}(x\tau_i(x)) = 2\{x^2e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha} - \mathbb{E}[(x\tau_i(x))^2]\} - 2\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)]\{xe^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha} - \mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)]\}, \tag{8}$$

and $|\rho(\partial/\partial\rho)\mathrm{Var}(x\tau_i(x))| \le 4x^2/\alpha$. Expected completed work $\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)]$ and mean burnout time $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x)]$ strictly decrease in ρ, while expected lost work $\mathbb{E}[x(1-\tau_i(x))]$ strictly increases.

(iv) The distribution of $\tau_i(x)$ depends on x and ρ only through cumulative exposure $u = \rho x^\alpha/\alpha$, with $\Pr(\tau_i(x) \ge t) = e^{-ut^\alpha}$ for $t \in [0,1]$. Its expectation satisfies $(d/du)\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x)] = -\int_0^1 t^\alpha e^{-ut^\alpha}\,dt < 0$. As $u \to 0$, $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x)] \to 1$ and $\mathrm{Var}(\tau_i(x)) \to 0$. As $u \to \infty$, $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x)] \to 0$ and $\mathrm{Var}(\tau_i(x))/\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x)] \to 0$.

Proof. (i). The survival function follows from the burnout distribution in Section 2.2 by setting $t = k/x$ and using $\tau_i(x) \le 1$. Integrating this survival function gives (7). To obtain the bounds, extend the integrals to infinity and substitute $w = \rho^{1/\alpha}k$. Choose c_α at least as large as the finite integrals $\int_0^\infty e^{-w^\alpha/\alpha}\,dw$ and $\int_0^\infty 2we^{-w^\alpha/\alpha}\,dw$.

(ii). The survival function in part (i) weakly increases in x. Also, $\Pr(x[1-\tau_i(x)] > l) = 1 - e^{-\rho(x-l)^\alpha/\alpha}$ for $0 \le l < x$, and zero for $l \ge x$. This probability weakly increases in x and ρ, which proves the claims about lost work. The derivative formulas follow by differentiating (7), $\mathbb{E}[x(1-\tau_i(x))] = x - \mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)]$, and $1 - e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}$.

(iii). Differentiating (7) with respect to ρ and integrating by parts gives the stated derivatives of the first two moments. These give the variance derivative in (8). The bound follows because $xe^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}$, $\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)]$, and $\mathbb{E}[(x\tau_i(x))^2]^{1/2}$ lie in $[0,x]$. The remaining claims follow from (7) and $1 - e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}$.

(iv). The burnout distribution in Section 2.2 gives the stated survival function, so $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x)] = \int_0^1 e^{-ut^\alpha}\,dt$ and $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x)^2] = \int_0^1 2te^{-ut^\alpha}\,dt$. Differentiating the first integral with respect to u gives the stated strictly negative derivative; both integrals tend to one as $u \to 0$. As $u \to \infty$, substituting $w = u^{1/\alpha}t$ shows that $u^{1/\alpha}\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x)]$ and $u^{2/\alpha}\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x)^2]$ converge to positive constants. The remaining limits follow. □

Proof of Lemma 1. Fix $\mathbf{x}_{-i}$ and condition on coworkers' completed work $\{x_j\tau_j(x_j) : j \ne i\}$. By Lemma 3(i), employee i's completed work $x_i\tau_i(x_i)$ has density $\rho k^{\alpha-1}e^{-\rho k^\alpha/\alpha}$ on $(0, x_i)$ and mass $e^{-\rho x_i^\alpha/\alpha}$ at x_i. Differentiating expected compensation $\mathbb{E}[y_i + r_i]$ cancels the boundary terms, leaving $e^{-\rho x_i^\alpha/\alpha}$ times marginal compensation at completed work x_i. Evaluating the expected work-cost integral in (2) gives $(1 - e^{-\rho x_i^\alpha/\alpha})/\rho$. Using $(\partial/\partial y_i)r_i = \frac{n-1}{n}[\gamma - (y_i - \bar{y})]_+$ and differentiating the work and burnout cost terms in (2) gives

$$(\partial/\partial x_i)u_i = e^{-\rho x_i^\alpha/\alpha}\left\{\theta\left[1 + \tfrac{n-1}{n}\mathbb{E}\left[\left(\gamma - \tfrac{n-1}{n}\theta x_i + \frac{\theta}{n}\sum_{j\ne i} x_j\tau_j(x_j)\right)_+\right]\right] - (1+\rho\phi^w)x_i^{\alpha-1}\right\}. \tag{9}$$

The term in braces is positive at $x_i = 0$ and strictly decreases to $-\infty$: expected marginal compensation weakly decreases in x_i, while $(1+\rho\phi^w)x_i^{\alpha-1}$ strictly increases to infinity. Since $e^{-\rho x_i^\alpha/\alpha} > 0$, each employee has a unique positive best response, given by $(\partial/\partial x_i)u_i = 0$.

Setting all intensities equal to x in the first-order condition (9) gives (4). Its left-hand side strictly increases

from zero to infinity in x. Its right-hand side is positive, bounded, and weakly decreasing, by Lemma 3. Thus, there is a unique positive solution x^* and a unique symmetric equilibrium.

To rule out asymmetric equilibria, suppose an equilibrium has $x_i > x_j$, and write $S = \sum_{k\notin\{i,j\}} x_k\tau_k(x_k)$ for the completed work of their remaining coworkers. By Lemma 3(ii), $x_j\tau_j(x_j)$ is stochastically no greater than $x_i\tau_i(x_i)$, and both are independent of S. Thus, since $x_i > x_j$ and $(\cdot)_+$ is weakly increasing,

$$\mathbb{E}\left[\left(\gamma - \tfrac{n-1}{n}\theta x_i + \tfrac{\theta}{n}\{x_j\tau_j(x_j) + S\}\right)_+\right] \leq \mathbb{E}\left[\left(\gamma - \tfrac{n-1}{n}\theta x_j + \tfrac{\theta}{n}\{x_i\tau_i(x_i) + S\}\right)_+\right].$$

The first-order conditions in (9) therefore imply $(1+\rho\phi^w)x_i^{\alpha-1} \leq (1+\rho\phi^w)x_j^{\alpha-1}$, contradicting $x_i > x_j$. Every equilibrium is therefore symmetric and, by the preceding construction, unique. □

If $\gamma \geq \frac{n-1}{n}\theta x$, the expression inside $(\cdot)_+$ in (4) is nonnegative for every realization of coworkers' lost work. Taking expectations then gives

$$(1+\rho\phi^w)x^{\alpha-1} = \theta\left[1 + \frac{n-1}{n}\gamma - \left(\frac{n-1}{n}\right)^2\theta\,\mathbb{E}[x(1-\tau_i(x))]\right]. \tag{10}$$

Because lost work $x[1-\tau_j(x)]$ equals 0 with positive probability and has a density on $(0,x)$, the sum $\frac{\theta}{n}\sum_{j=1}^{n-1} x[1-\tau_j(x)]$ equals $\gamma > 0$ with probability zero. The expectation in (4) is therefore continuously differentiable in x, θ, ρ, and γ. At $x = x^* > 0$, the left-hand side of (4) has a positive derivative with respect to x, while the right-hand side has a nonpositive derivative. The implicit function theorem then gives continuous differentiability of x^*, W^*, and Π^* in θ, ρ, γ, and ϕ^w. When $\gamma > \frac{n-1}{n}\theta x^*$, x^* is infinitely differentiable by (10), because $\mathbb{E}[x(1-\tau_i(x))] = x - \int_0^x e^{-\rho k^\alpha/\alpha}\,dk$.

Lemma 4. *(i) For each realized output profile,*

$$\sum_{i=1}^n r_i(\mathbf{y}) = -\frac{1}{2}\sum_{i=1}^n (y_i - \bar{y})^2 + \frac{1}{2}\sum_{i=1}^n (y_i - \bar{y} - \gamma)_+^2 \leq 0. \tag{11}$$

(ii) Displaying parameter dependence explicitly, let $W(x,\theta,\rho,\gamma)$ and $\pi(x,\theta,\rho,\gamma)$ denote total expected employee welfare and expected firm profit when every employee chooses x, and let $\widetilde{P}(x;\theta,\rho) = (v-1)\theta\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)] - \phi^f\left(1-e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}\right) + \frac{n-1}{2n}\theta^2\mathrm{Var}(x\tau_i(x))$. Then

$$\begin{aligned}
\pi(x,\theta,\rho,\gamma)/n &= \widetilde{P}(x;\theta,\rho) - \tfrac{1}{2}\mathbb{E}\left[(y_1 - \bar{y} - \gamma)_+^2\right], \\
W(x,\theta,\rho,\gamma)/n &= \theta\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)] - (1/\rho + \phi^w)\left(1 - e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}\right) \\
&\quad - \frac{n-1}{2n}\theta^2\mathrm{Var}(x\tau_i(x)) + \tfrac{1}{2}\mathbb{E}\left[(y_1 - \bar{y} - \gamma)_+^2\right],
\end{aligned} \tag{12}$$

where $\mathbb{E}[(y_1 - \bar{y} - \gamma)_+^2] = 0$ if and only if $\gamma \geq \frac{n-1}{n}\theta x$. If mitigation spending is $C(\rho)$ per employee, total social welfare, $\pi + W - nC(\rho)$, is $n\{v\theta\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)] - (\phi^f + 1/\rho + \phi^w)\left(1 - e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}\right) - C(\rho)\}$.

Proof. (i). By (1), $r_i = \gamma(y_i - \bar{y}) - (y_i - \bar{y})^2/2 + (y_i - \bar{y} - \gamma)_+^2/2$. Summing over employees and using $\sum_i (y_i - \bar{y}) = 0$ gives (11), where the inequality holds because $0 \leq (y_i - \bar{y} - \gamma)_+ \leq |y_i - \bar{y}|$ for $\gamma \geq 0$.

(ii). At a symmetric intensity, outputs are i.i.d., so $\mathbb{E}[\sum_i (y_i - \bar{y})^2] = (n-1)\theta^2\mathrm{Var}(x\tau_i(x))$. Taking expectations in (11) and using the definitions of profit and employee welfare gives (12). Because the support of $y_1 - \bar{y}$ has supremum $\frac{n-1}{n}\theta x$, $\mathbb{E}[(y_1 - \bar{y} - \gamma)_+^2] = 0$ if and only if $\gamma \geq \frac{n-1}{n}\theta x$. Adding profit and employee welfare cancels

employee payments. Subtracting mitigation spending then gives the stated social welfare. □

Proof of Lemma 2. Write $x = x^*(\theta, \rho, \gamma)$. Because the left-hand side of (4) strictly increases in x and the right-hand side weakly decreases in x, the implicit function theorem implies that $(d/d\theta)x$ has the same sign as the following partial derivative, evaluated at fixed x:

$$\begin{aligned}(\partial/\partial\theta)\left\{\theta\left[1+\frac{n-1}{n}\mathbb{E}\left[\left(\gamma-\frac{\theta}{n}\sum_{j=1}^{n-1}x[1-\tau_j(x)]\right)_+\right]\right]\right\}\\ =1+\frac{n-1}{n}\mathbb{E}\left[\left(\gamma-\frac{2\theta}{n}\sum_{j=1}^{n-1}x[1-\tau_j(x)]\right)\mathbf{1}\left\{\frac{\theta}{n}\sum_{j=1}^{n-1}x[1-\tau_j(x)]<\gamma\right\}\right].\end{aligned} \tag{13}$$

By Lemma 3(iv), mean burnout time $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x^*)]$ strictly decreases in $u = \rho(x^*)^\alpha/\alpha$. Since ρ is fixed, $(d/d\theta)\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x^*)]$ has the opposite sign to $(d/d\theta)x^*$.

(i). If $\gamma = 0$, the event $\{\frac{\theta}{n}\sum_{j=1}^{n-1}x[1-\tau_j(x)] < \gamma\}$ is empty, and the right-hand side of (13) equals one. If $\gamma > 0$, then $\gamma - \frac{2\theta}{n}\sum_{j=1}^{n-1}x[1-\tau_j(x)] > -\gamma$ whenever $\frac{\theta}{n}\sum_{j=1}^{n-1}x[1-\tau_j(x)] < \gamma$. Moreover, $\Pr(\frac{\theta}{n}\sum_{j=1}^{n-1}x[1-\tau_j(x)] < \gamma) > 0$ because no coworker burns out with positive probability. Therefore, the right-hand side of (13) exceeds $1 - \frac{n-1}{n}\gamma$, which is nonnegative when $\gamma \le \bar{\gamma}_R$. In both cases, $(d/d\theta)x^* > 0$, which establishes part (i).

(ii). Fix $\gamma \in (\bar{\gamma}_R, \theta^m - 1)$. When $\gamma > \frac{n-1}{n}\theta x$, differentiating (10) with respect to θ and using Lemma 3 gives

$$\left[(1+\rho\phi^w)(\alpha-1)x^{\alpha-2}+\left(\frac{n-1}{n}\right)^2\theta^2\left(1-e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}\right)\right](d/d\theta)x = 1+\frac{n-1}{n}\gamma-2\left(\frac{n-1}{n}\right)^2\theta\,\mathbb{E}[x(1-\tau_i(x))], \tag{14}$$

so equilibrium intensity strictly decreases in θ if and only if

$$\mathbb{E}[x(1-\tau_i(x))] > \frac{n[n+(n-1)\gamma]}{2(n-1)^2\theta}. \tag{15}$$

Because expected lost work $\mathbb{E}[x(1-\tau_i(x))]$ is zero at $x = 0$ and strictly increases to infinity in x (Lemma 3), there is a unique intensity $\bar{x}$ at which (15) holds with equality at $\theta = \theta^m$. It suffices to show that $\bar{x} < x^*(\theta^m) < n\gamma/[(n-1)\theta^m]$ for suitable ρ and ϕ^w, since then (14) applies and (15) holds at θ^m, and $(d/d\theta)x^* < 0$ and $(d/d\theta)\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x^*)] > 0$ hold on some interval $[\bar{\theta}, \theta^m]$ by continuity and the sign relation established above.

Because $n/(n-1) < \gamma < \theta^m - 1$ and $n \ge 3$, the right-hand side of (15) at θ^m is less than $\min\{1, n\gamma/[(n-1)\theta^m]\}$. Because $\bar{x} = n[n+(n-1)\gamma]/[2(n-1)^2\theta^m] + \mathbb{E}[\bar{x}\tau_i(\bar{x})]$ and $\mathbb{E}[\bar{x}\tau_i(\bar{x})] \le c_\alpha\rho^{-1/\alpha}$, there exists $\bar{\rho}$ such that $\bar{x} < \min\{1, n\gamma/[(n-1)\theta^m]\}$ for all $\rho > \bar{\rho}$.

Lastly, fix $\rho > \bar{\rho}$. By (4), $x^*(\theta^m)$ is continuous and strictly decreasing in ϕ^w, satisfies $x^*(\theta^m) \ge (\theta^m)^{1/(\alpha-1)} > 1 > \bar{x}$ at $\phi^w = 0$, and converges to zero as $\phi^w \to \infty$. Therefore, there exist $0 \le \underline{\phi}^w < \overline{\phi}^w$ such that $\bar{x} < x^*(\theta^m) < n\gamma/[(n-1)\theta^m]$ for all $\phi^w \in (\underline{\phi}^w, \overline{\phi}^w)$, as desired. □

The next lemma, used for Propositions 1(iii) and 2(iii), identifies a technology level at which equilibrium work intensity switches from increasing to decreasing.

Lemma 5. *Suppose $\gamma > \bar{\gamma}_R$. There exists $\bar{\phi}^w > 0$ such that, if $\phi^w \in (0, \bar{\phi}^w)$ and $\rho > 1/\bar{\phi}^w$, there is a technology*

level $\bar{\theta}$, with $\bar{x} = x^*(\bar{\theta})$, for which the following statements hold: (i) $\gamma > \frac{n-1}{n}\bar{\theta}\bar{x}$, and at $\bar{\theta}$, $(d/d\theta)x^* = 0$ and $(d^2/d\theta^2)x^* < 0$; (ii) $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(\bar{x})] > \frac{n-1}{n}\bar{\theta}\bar{x}\,\mathrm{Var}(\tau_i(\bar{x}))$; and (iii) for fixed ϕ^w, $\bar{\theta} \to \infty$ as $\rho \to \infty$.

Proof. (i). When $\gamma > \frac{n-1}{n}\theta x^*$, (14) gives $(d/d\theta)x^* = 0$ if and only if (15) holds with equality, in which case the right-hand side of (10) equals $\theta[n + (n-1)\gamma]/(2n)$. Write $u = \rho x^\alpha/\alpha$. By Lemma 3, $u\,\mathbb{E}[1 - \tau_i(x)]$ depends on x and ρ only through u and strictly increases in u, from 0 at $u = 0$ to infinity as $u \to \infty$. Let $\bar{x}$ be the unique intensity at which

$$u\,\mathbb{E}[1 - \tau_i(x)] = \frac{[n + (n-1)\gamma]^2}{4\alpha(n-1)^2(\phi^w + 1/\rho)}, \tag{16}$$

and set $\bar{\theta} = n[n + (n-1)\gamma]/\{2(n-1)^2\bar{x}\,\mathbb{E}[1 - \tau_i(\bar{x})]\}$. Substitution shows that $\bar{x}$ solves (10) and that (15) holds with equality at $\theta = \bar{\theta}$. Also, $\frac{n-1}{n}\bar{\theta}\bar{x} < \gamma$ if and only if $\mathbb{E}[1 - \tau_i(\bar{x})] > [n + (n-1)\gamma]/[2(n-1)\gamma]$. The right-hand side is less than one because $\gamma > n/(n-1)$.

By (16), $u \geq [n + (n-1)\gamma]^2/[4\alpha(n-1)^2(\phi^w + 1/\rho)]$ at $\bar{x}$. Because $\mathbb{E}[1 - \tau_i(x)] \to 1$ as $u \to \infty$ (Lemma 3), there exists $\bar{\phi}^w > 0$ such that, whenever $\phi^w + 1/\rho < 2\bar{\phi}^w$, we have $\mathbb{E}[1 - \tau_i(\bar{x})] > [n + (n-1)\gamma]/[2(n-1)\gamma]$. Suppose $\phi^w < \bar{\phi}^w$ and $\rho > 1/\bar{\phi}^w$, so that $\phi^w + 1/\rho < 2\bar{\phi}^w$. Then $\gamma > \frac{n-1}{n}\bar{\theta}\bar{x}$, so $\bar{x} = x^*(\bar{\theta})$ and $(d/d\theta)x^* = 0$ at $\bar{\theta}$. Differentiating (14) with respect to θ at $\bar{\theta}$ then gives

$$\left[(1 + \rho\phi^w)(\alpha - 1)\bar{x}^{\alpha-2} + \left(\frac{n-1}{n}\right)^2 \bar{\theta}^2\left(1 - e^{-\rho\bar{x}^\alpha/\alpha}\right)\right](d^2/d\theta^2)x^* = -2\left(\frac{n-1}{n}\right)^2 \mathbb{E}[\bar{x}(1 - \tau_i(\bar{x}))] < 0.$$

(ii). By part (i), $\mathbb{E}[1-\tau_i(\bar{x})] > 1/2$, so $\frac{n-1}{n}\bar{\theta}\bar{x} \leq [n+(n-1)\gamma]/(n-1)$. Because $\mathrm{Var}(\tau_i(x))/\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x)] \to 0$ as $u \to \infty$ (Lemma 3), the lower bound on u in part (i) implies that, after reducing $\bar{\phi}^w$ if necessary, $\mathrm{Var}(\tau_i(\bar{x}))/\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(\bar{x})] < (n-1)/[n + (n-1)\gamma]$ whenever $\phi^w + 1/\rho < 2\bar{\phi}^w$. Hence $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(\bar{x})] > \frac{n-1}{n}\bar{\theta}\bar{x}\,\mathrm{Var}(\tau_i(\bar{x}))$, as claimed.

(iii). Fix ϕ^w. As $\rho \to \infty$, the value of u solving (16) converges to a finite positive value, so $\bar{x} = (\alpha u/\rho)^{1/\alpha} \to 0$ and $\bar{\theta} \geq n[n + (n-1)\gamma]/[2(n-1)^2\bar{x}] \to \infty$. □

Proof of Proposition 1. (i). At $\rho = 0$, no employee burns out, private cost is x^α/α, and all employees produce the same output, so $r_i = 0$. Equation (4) gives $x^* = \{[1 + (n-1)\gamma/n]\theta\}^{1/(\alpha-1)}$. Substituting into $W^* = n[\theta x^* - (x^*)^\alpha/\alpha]$ and differentiating gives $(d/d\theta)W^* = nx^*\{1 - (n-1)\gamma/[n(\alpha-1)]\}$. This has the sign of $\bar{\gamma}_W - \gamma$.

(ii). Fix $\gamma > 0$ and $\phi^w > 0$, and write $x = x^*(\theta)$. When $\gamma > \frac{n-1}{n}\theta x$, Lemma 4 gives $W^*/n = \theta\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)] - (1/\rho + \phi^w)\left(1 - e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}\right) - \frac{n-1}{2n}\theta^2\mathrm{Var}(x\tau_i(x))$. Differentiating W^* with respect to θ, using the marginal expected cost $(1 + \rho\phi^w)x^{\alpha-1}e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}$, (10), and Lemma 3, gives

$$\frac{1}{n}(d/d\theta)W^* = \mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)] - \frac{n-1}{n}\theta\,\mathrm{Var}(x\tau_i(x)) - \frac{n-1}{n}\theta e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}\left[\gamma + \frac{\theta}{n}\mathbb{E}[x(1 - \tau_i(x))]\right](d/d\theta)x, \tag{17}$$

where the first two terms are the direct technology effect and the last term is the strategic work-intensity effect.

Set $\theta = 1$. By (4), $(x^*)^{\alpha-1} \leq [1 + (n-1)\gamma/n]/(1 + \rho\phi^w)$, so $x^* \to 0$ and $\rho(x^*)^\alpha \to 0$ as $\rho \to \infty$. Lemma 3 then gives $\mathbb{E}[x^*\tau_i(x^*)]/x^* \to 1$, $\mathrm{Var}(x^*\tau_i(x^*))/x^* \to 0$, and $1 - e^{-\rho(x^*)^\alpha/\alpha} \to 0$. Also, $\gamma > \frac{n-1}{n}x^*$ for large ρ. Using $\mathbb{E}[x^*(1-\tau_i(x^*))] \leq x^*$ in (10) and (14) gives $(1+\rho\phi^w)(x^*)^{\alpha-1} \to 1+(n-1)\gamma/n$ and $(1/x^*)(d/d\theta)x^* \to 1/(\alpha-1)$.

Now suppose $\gamma > \bar{\gamma}_W$. Substituting these limits into (17) gives $(1/(nx^*))(d/d\theta)W^* \to 1-(n-1)\gamma/[n(\alpha-1)] < 0$ at $\theta = 1$. The direct technology effect divided by x^* tends to one, while $(d/d\theta)x^* > 0$ for large ρ. By continuity,

these signs hold on $[1, \theta_1]$ for some $\theta_1 \in (1, \theta^m)$, proving part (ii).

(iii). Fix $\gamma > \bar{\gamma}_W$, which exceeds $\bar{\gamma}_R$ because $\alpha > 2$, let $\bar{\phi}^w$ be the threshold in Lemma 5, and fix $\phi^w \in (0, \bar{\phi}^w)$. For $\rho > 1/\bar{\phi}^w$, let $\bar{\theta}$ and $\bar{x} = x^*(\bar{\theta})$ be as in that lemma. At $\bar{\theta}$, $(d/d\theta)x^* = 0$, so (17) gives $(1/n)(d/d\theta)W^* = \bar{x}\{\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(\bar{x})] - \frac{n-1}{n}\bar{\theta}\bar{x}\,\mathrm{Var}(\tau_i(\bar{x}))\} > 0$. Because $(d^2/d\theta^2)x^* < 0$ at $\bar{\theta}$, by continuity there exist θ_2 and θ^m with $\bar{\theta} < \theta_2 < \theta^m$ such that, on $[\theta_2, \theta^m]$, $\gamma > \frac{n-1}{n}\theta x^*$, $(d/d\theta)x^* < 0$, and $\mathbb{E}[x^*\tau_i(x^*)] - \frac{n-1}{n}\theta\,\mathrm{Var}(x^*\tau_i(x^*)) > 0$. Equation (17) therefore implies $(d/d\theta)W^* > 0$ on this interval, while $(d/d\theta)x^* < 0$ implies $(d/d\theta)\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x^*)] > 0$.

Lastly, for sufficiently large ρ, Lemma 5 gives $\bar{\theta} > 1$, and part (ii) gives $(d/d\theta)W^* < 0$ on $[1, \theta_1]$ for some $\theta_1 \in (1, \bar{\theta})$. Continuity gives a minimum of W^* on $[1, \theta^m]$. Since $(d/d\theta)W^* < 0$ at $\theta = 1$ and $(d/d\theta)W^* > 0$ at $\theta = \theta^m$, every minimum is interior. □

Proof of Proposition 2. (i). In the absence of burnout, $r_i = 0$ and $\Pi^* = n(v-1)\theta x^*$. Using x^* from the proof of Proposition 1(i) gives $(d/d\theta)\Pi^* = n\alpha(v-1)x^*/(\alpha-1) > 0$. This strictly increases in θ because x^* does.

(ii). Fix $\gamma > 0$ and $\phi^w > 0$, write $x = x^*(\theta)$, and consider $\theta = 1$ as $\rho \to \infty$. The proof of Proposition 1(ii) gives $x \to 0$, $\rho x^\alpha \to 0$, $(1+\rho\phi^w)x^{\alpha-1} \to 1 + (n-1)\gamma/n$, and $(1/x)(d/d\theta)x \to 1/(\alpha-1)$. Differentiating (14) with respect to θ then yields $(1/x)(d^2/d\theta^2)x \to (2-\alpha)/(\alpha-1)^2$ at $\theta = 1$, as in the absence of burnout.

Next, expected output per employee is $\mathbb{E}[y_i] = \theta\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)]$. By Lemma 3, $(d/d\theta)\mathbb{E}[y_i] = \mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)] + \theta e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}(d/d\theta)x$ and $(d^2/d\theta^2)\mathbb{E}[y_i] = e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}[2(d/d\theta)x + \theta(d^2/d\theta^2)x - \rho\theta x^{\alpha-1}\big((d/d\theta)x\big)^2]$, so at $\theta = 1$, $(1/x)(d/d\theta)\mathbb{E}[y_i] \to \alpha/(\alpha-1) > 0$ and $(1/x)(d^2/d\theta^2)\mathbb{E}[y_i] \to \alpha/(\alpha-1)^2 > 0$. Fix sufficiently large ρ. By continuity, $(d/d\theta)\mathbb{E}[y_i] > 0$, $(d^2/d\theta^2)\mathbb{E}[y_i] > 0$, and $\gamma > \frac{n-1}{n}\theta x$ on $[1, \theta_1]$ for some $\theta_1 \in (1, \theta^m)$. On this interval, Lemma 4 gives $\Pi^*/n = (v-1)\mathbb{E}[y_i] - \phi^f\left(1 - e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}\right) + \frac{n-1}{2n}\theta^2\mathrm{Var}(x\tau_i(x))$. Because $x = x^*(\theta)$ does not depend on v, the burnout-cost term $\phi^f\left(1 - e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}\right)$ and variance term $\frac{n-1}{2n}\theta^2\mathrm{Var}(x\tau_i(x))$ have bounded first and second derivatives with respect to θ, independent of v. Both $(d/d\theta)\mathbb{E}[y_i]$ and $(d^2/d\theta^2)\mathbb{E}[y_i]$ have positive minima on $[1, \theta_1]$. Therefore, $(d/d\theta)\Pi^* > 0$ and $(d^2/d\theta^2)\Pi^* > 0$ on $[1, \theta_1]$ for sufficiently large v, proving part (ii).

(iii). Fix $\gamma > \bar{\gamma}_R$, let $\bar{\phi}^w$ be the threshold in Lemma 5, and fix $\phi^w \in (0, \bar{\phi}^w)$. For $\rho > 1/\bar{\phi}^w$, let $\bar{\theta}$ be as in that lemma. Because $(d/d\theta)x^* = 0$ and $(d^2/d\theta^2)x^* < 0$ at $\bar{\theta}$, the formulas in part (ii) reduce to $(d/d\theta)\mathbb{E}[y_i] = \mathbb{E}[x^*\tau_i(x^*)] > 0$ and $(d^2/d\theta^2)\mathbb{E}[y_i] = \bar{\theta}e^{-\rho(x^*)^\alpha/\alpha}(d^2/d\theta^2)x^* < 0$ at $\bar{\theta}$. Choose ρ large enough that $\bar{\theta} > 1$ and the argument in part (ii) applies on $[1, \theta_1]$ for some $\theta_1 \in (1, \bar{\theta})$. By continuity, there exist θ_2 and θ^m with $\bar{\theta} < \theta_2 < \theta^m$ such that, on $[\theta_2, \theta^m]$, $\gamma > \frac{n-1}{n}\theta x^*$, $(d/d\theta)\mathbb{E}[y_i] > 0$, $(d^2/d\theta^2)\mathbb{E}[y_i] < 0$, and $(d/d\theta)x^* < 0$, so that mean burnout time $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x^*)]$ strictly increases by Lemma 3(iv). As in part (ii), choosing v sufficiently large gives $(d/d\theta)\Pi^* > 0$ on both intervals, $(d^2/d\theta^2)\Pi^* > 0$ on $[1, \theta_1]$, and $(d^2/d\theta^2)\Pi^* < 0$ on $[\theta_2, \theta^m]$. Lastly, continuity gives a maximum of $(d/d\theta)\Pi^*$ on $[1, \theta^m]$. Every maximum is interior because $(d/d\theta)\Pi^*$ increases near 1 and decreases near θ^m. □

The next two lemmas characterize implementable intensities and the firm's optimal intensity.

Lemma 6. *(i) Equation (18) defines a unique $\gamma(x, \theta, \rho) \geq 0$ if and only if $x \geq [\theta/(1+\rho\phi^w)]^{1/(\alpha-1)}$:*

$$\mathbb{E}\left[\left(\gamma - \frac{\theta}{n}\sum_{j=1}^{n-1} x[1 - \tau_j(x)]\right)_+\right] = \frac{n[(1+\rho\phi^w)x^{\alpha-1} - \theta]}{(n-1)\theta}. \tag{18}$$

If $x = [\theta/(1+\rho\phi^w)]^{1/(\alpha-1)}$, then $\gamma(x, \theta, \rho) = 0$. If $x > [\theta/(1+\rho\phi^w)]^{1/(\alpha-1)}$, then $\gamma(x, \theta, \rho) > 0$ and

$(\partial/\partial x)\gamma(x,\theta,\rho) > 0$.

(ii) If

$$(1+\rho\phi^w)x^{\alpha-1} > \theta + \left(\frac{n-1}{n}\right)^2 \theta^2 \mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)], \tag{19}$$

then $\gamma(x,\theta,\rho) > \frac{n-1}{n}\theta x$.

Proof. (i). Rearranging (4) gives (18). The left-hand side of (18) equals zero at $\gamma = 0$ and converges to infinity as $\gamma \to \infty$. For $\gamma > 0$,

$$(\partial/\partial\gamma)\mathbb{E}\left[\left(\gamma - \frac{\theta}{n}\sum_{j=1}^{n-1} x[1-\tau_j(x)]\right)_+\right] = \Pr\left(\frac{\theta}{n}\sum_{j=1}^{n-1} x[1-\tau_j(x)] < \gamma\right) > 0,$$

because no coworker burns out with positive probability. Therefore, (18) has a unique solution $\gamma \geq 0$ if and only if its right-hand side is nonnegative, and this solution is zero if and only if the right-hand side is zero. For $x > [\theta/(1+\rho\phi^w)]^{1/(\alpha-1)}$, the right-hand side strictly increases in x, whereas the left-hand side weakly decreases in x (Lemma 3), so implicitly differentiating (18) gives $(\partial/\partial x)\gamma(x,\theta,\rho) > 0$.

(ii). Solving (10) for γ and using $\mathbb{E}[x(1-\tau_i(x))] = x - \mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)]$ shows that the solution exceeds $\frac{n-1}{n}\theta x$ exactly when (19) holds. It then also solves (18), so uniqueness proves the claim. □

We say that an intensity x is *implementable* if $x \geq [\theta/(1+\rho\phi^w)]^{1/(\alpha-1)}$, in which case the incentive $\gamma(x,\theta,\rho)$ induces x as the equilibrium intensity (Lemma 6). By Lemma 3, $(\partial/\partial x)\widetilde{P}(x;\theta,\rho) = e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}G(x;\theta,\rho)$, where

$$G(x;\theta,\rho) = (v-1)\theta + \frac{n-1}{n}\theta^2\mathbb{E}[x(1-\tau_i(x))] - \phi^f\rho x^{\alpha-1}. \tag{20}$$

By Lemma 4, profit per employee at an implementable intensity x is at most $\widetilde{P}(x;\theta,\rho)$, with equality when $\gamma(x,\theta,\rho) \geq \frac{n-1}{n}\theta x$. Consequently, if $\widetilde{P}(\cdot\,;\theta,\rho)$ has a unique maximizer $\hat{x}$ that satisfies (19), then $\hat{x}$ is implementable, $\gamma(\hat{x},\theta,\rho) > \frac{n-1}{n}\theta\hat{x}$ (Lemma 6), and $\hat{x}$ uniquely maximizes profit over implementable intensities.

Lemma 7. *(i) There exists $\kappa > 0$, depending only on α, v, and θ^m, such that if $\phi^f \max\{\rho, \rho^{1/\alpha}\} < \kappa$, then for every $\theta \in [1,\theta^m]$, $G(\cdot\,;\theta,\rho)$ has a unique root x^*, at which $(\partial/\partial x)G < 0$. This root uniquely maximizes profit over implementable intensities, and the corresponding incentive satisfies $\gamma^* > \frac{n-1}{n}\theta x^*$.*

(ii) For fixed θ and ϕ^f, as $\rho \to 0$, $\rho^{1/(\alpha-2)}x^* \to [(n-1)\theta^2/(n\phi^f)]^{1/(\alpha-2)}$ and $(\rho/x^*)(d/d\rho)x^* \to -1/(\alpha-2)$.

Proof. (i). Fix $\theta \in [1,\theta^m]$. Since $G(0;\theta,\rho) = (v-1)\theta > 0$ and $G(x;\theta,\rho) \to -\infty$ as $x \to \infty$, G has a root. At any root, $\phi^f\rho x^{\alpha-1} \geq (v-1)\theta \geq v-1$, so by Lemma 3,

$$x \geq \left[\frac{v-1}{\phi^f\rho}\right]^{1/(\alpha-1)}, \qquad \frac{\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)]}{x} \leq c_\alpha\left[\frac{\phi^f\rho^{1/\alpha}}{v-1}\right]^{1/(\alpha-1)}. \tag{21}$$

The bounds on x and $\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)]/x$ do not depend on θ. As $\phi^f\max\{\rho,\rho^{1/\alpha}\} \to 0$, $x \to \infty$ and $\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)]/x \to 0$ at every root, uniformly over $\theta \in [1,\theta^m]$. At any root, $G = 0$ also gives $\phi^f\rho x^{\alpha-2} \geq \frac{n-1}{n}\theta^2\{1-\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)]/x\}$, so, because $\left(1-e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}\right) \leq 1$,

$$(\partial/\partial x)G = \frac{n-1}{n}\theta^2\left(1-e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}\right) - (\alpha-1)\phi^f\rho x^{\alpha-2} \leq \frac{n-1}{n}\theta^2\left[1-(\alpha-1)\left(1-\frac{\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)]}{x}\right)\right],$$

which is negative whenever $\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)]/x < (\alpha-2)/(\alpha-1)$. By (21), this holds at every root when $\phi^f \max\{\rho, \rho^{1/\alpha}\}$ is small, so G changes sign only from positive to negative and has a unique root x^*, which uniquely maximizes $\widetilde{P}$ because $(\partial/\partial x)\widetilde{P} = e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}G$.

At $x = x^*$, divide both sides of (19) by x. The left-hand side is at least $x^{\alpha-2}$, and the right-hand side is at most $\theta^m/x + (\theta^m)^2\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)]/x$. By (21), the left-hand side tends to infinity and the right-hand side to zero as $\phi^f \max\{\rho, \rho^{1/\alpha}\} \to 0$, uniformly over $\theta \in [1, \theta^m]$. The paragraph preceding the lemma then gives implementability, $\gamma^* > \frac{n-1}{n}\theta x^*$, and a unique profit maximum at x^*.

(ii). Fix θ and ϕ^f, and let $\rho \to 0$. By (21), $x^* \to \infty$ and $\mathbb{E}[x^*\tau_i(x^*)]/x^* \to 0$, and $\rho(x^*)^\alpha \geq [(v-1)/\phi^f]^{\alpha/(\alpha-1)}\rho^{-1/(\alpha-1)} \to \infty$, so $1 - e^{-\rho(x^*)^\alpha/\alpha} \to 1$ at $x = x^*$. Dividing $G(x^*;\theta,\rho) = 0$ by x^* gives $\phi^f\rho(x^*)^{\alpha-2} \to \frac{n-1}{n}\theta^2$, which proves the first limit. It also gives $(\partial/\partial x)G \to -(\alpha-2)\frac{n-1}{n}\theta^2$. By Lemma 3, $\rho(\partial/\partial\rho)\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)]/x \to 0$ at $x = x^*$. Using these limits when implicitly differentiating $G(x^*;\theta,\rho) = 0$ gives $(\rho/x^*)(d/d\rho)x^* \to -1/(\alpha-2)$. □

Proof of Proposition 3. (i). Fix $\gamma > 0$ and write $x = x^*(\theta,\rho,\gamma)$. At a fixed $x > 0$, increasing ρ strictly raises the left-hand side of (4) and weakly lowers the right-hand side, because each coworker's lost work $x[1-\tau_j(x)]$ is stochastically increasing in ρ (Lemma 3). Therefore, equilibrium intensity strictly decreases in ρ. As $\rho \to 0$, (4) gives $x \to \{[1+(n-1)\gamma/n]\theta\}^{1/(\alpha-1)}$, and conditioning on which coworkers burn out shows that $\mathbb{E}[(\gamma - \frac{\theta}{n}\sum_{j=1}^{n-1} x[1-\tau_j(x)])_+]$ is continuously differentiable in (x,ρ) at $\rho = 0$, so by the implicit function theorem, $(d/d\rho)x$ remains bounded near $\rho = 0$. Therefore, $(d/d\rho)(\rho x^\alpha/\alpha) = x^\alpha/\alpha + \rho x^{\alpha-1}(d/d\rho)x \to \alpha^{-1}\{[1+(n-1)\gamma/n]\theta\}^{\alpha/(\alpha-1)} > 0$. By Lemma 3(iv), mean burnout time $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x)]$ strictly decreases in ρ near $\rho = 0$, proving part (i).

(ii). *Step 1.* For small ρ, Lemma 7 gives a unique optimal intensity $x^* = x^*(\theta,\rho)$ with $\gamma^* > \frac{n-1}{n}\theta x^*$, so Lemma 4 gives $W^*/n = \theta\mathbb{E}[x^*\tau_i(x^*)] - (1/\rho + \phi^w)\left(1 - e^{-\rho(x^*)^\alpha/\alpha}\right) - \frac{n-1}{2n}\theta^2\mathrm{Var}(x^*\tau_i(x^*))$. Let $u^* = \rho(x^*)^\alpha/\alpha$ denote cumulative exposure. By Lemma 7, $\rho^{1/(\alpha-2)}x^* \to [(n-1)\theta^2/(n\phi^f)]^{1/(\alpha-2)}$ and $(\rho/x^*)(d/d\rho)x^* \to -1/(\alpha-2)$. Since $u^* = \rho(x^*)^\alpha/\alpha$, we have $\rho^{2/(\alpha-2)}u^* \to \alpha^{-1}[(n-1)\theta^2/(n\phi^f)]^{\alpha/(\alpha-2)} > 0$ as $\rho \to 0$ and

$$\frac{\rho}{u^*}(d/d\rho)u^* = 1 + \alpha\frac{\rho}{x^*}(d/d\rho)x^* \longrightarrow -\frac{2}{\alpha-2}. \tag{22}$$

Because $\rho^{1/(\alpha-2)}x^*$ and $\rho^{2/(\alpha-2)}u^*$ both converge to positive constants, the product of e^{-u^*} with any fixed powers of x^* and ρ, or with the bounded elasticity $(\rho/x^*)(d/d\rho)x^*$, converges to zero as $\rho \to 0$.

Step 2. Differentiating W^* with respect to ρ along $x^*(\theta,\rho)$ and multiplying by ρ^2/n, we have $(\rho^2/n)(d/d\rho)W^* = 1 - e^{-u^*} + R(\rho)$, where

$$R(\rho) = \theta\rho^2(d/d\rho)\mathbb{E}[x^*\tau_i(x^*)] - (1+\rho\phi^w)\rho e^{-u^*}(d/d\rho)u^* - \frac{n-1}{2n}\theta^2\rho^2(d/d\rho)\mathrm{Var}(x^*\tau_i(x^*)).$$

Expand the derivatives in $R(\rho)$ using Lemma 3. Terms containing e^{-u^*} converge to zero by Step 1. Using $\mathrm{Var}(x^*\tau_i(x^*)) \leq \mathbb{E}[(x^*\tau_i(x^*))^2]$, the contribution without e^{-u^*}, $(\rho/\alpha)\{-\theta\mathbb{E}[x^*\tau_i(x^*)] + \frac{n-1}{n}\theta^2\mathrm{Var}(x^*\tau_i(x^*))\}$, is bounded in absolute value by a constant multiple of $\rho\mathbb{E}[x^*\tau_i(x^*)] + \rho\mathbb{E}[(x^*\tau_i(x^*))^2] \leq 2c_\alpha\rho^{1-2/\alpha}$ for $\rho \leq 1$, which converges to zero because $\alpha > 2$. Therefore, $(\rho^2/n)(d/d\rho)W^* \to 1$, so W^* strictly increases in ρ near $\rho = 0$.

Step 3. Lemma 7 and (22) give $(d/d\rho)x^* < 0$ and $(d/d\rho)u^* < 0$ near $\rho = 0$, so x^* strictly increases and mean

burnout time $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x^*)]$ strictly decreases as ρ decreases, by Lemma 3(iv).

Step 4. Solving (10) for γ gives $\gamma^* = \frac{n-1}{n}\theta\,\mathbb{E}[x^*(1-\tau_i(x^*))] + \frac{n(1+\rho\phi^w)(x^*)^{\alpha-1}}{(n-1)\theta} - \frac{n}{n-1}$. Since $x^* \to \infty$ and $\alpha > 2$, this gives $\gamma^*/(x^*)^{\alpha-1} \to n/[(n-1)\theta]$. Differentiating the formula for γ^* and using Lemmas 3 and 7 gives $(\rho/\gamma^*)(d/d\rho)\gamma^* \to -(\alpha-1)/(\alpha-2)$. The contribution from expected lost work tends to zero in this limit: $|\rho(\partial/\partial\rho)\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)]| \le x/\alpha$, $(\rho/x^*)(d/d\rho)x^*$ is bounded, and $x^*/\gamma^* \to 0$. Thus, γ^* strictly decreases in ρ near zero. Choosing $\bar\rho$ small enough that all four derivative signs hold on $(0,\bar\rho)$ proves part (ii).

(iii). Suppose $1 < (v-1)\phi^w/\phi^f < \alpha$. Because $\left(1-e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}\right) \le \min\{\rho x^\alpha/\alpha, 1\} \le (\rho x^\alpha/\alpha)^{(\alpha-2)/\alpha}$, (20) gives $(\partial/\partial x)G \le x^{\alpha-2}[\frac{n-1}{n}\theta^2(\rho/\alpha)^{(\alpha-2)/\alpha} - (\alpha-1)\phi^f\rho] < 0$ for sufficiently large ρ. Because $G(0;\theta,\rho) > 0$ and $G(x;\theta,\rho) \to -\infty$ as $x \to \infty$, G has a unique root x, which uniquely maximizes $\widetilde{P}$. At this root, $(v-1)\theta \le \phi^f\rho x^{\alpha-1} \le (v-1)\theta + \frac{n-1}{n}\theta^2 x$, so $x \to 0$ and $\phi^f\rho x^{\alpha-1} \to (v-1)\theta$ as $\rho \to \infty$. Consequently, $(1+\rho\phi^w)x^{\alpha-1} - \theta - (\frac{n-1}{n})^2\theta^2\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)]$ converges to $\theta[(v-1)\phi^w/\phi^f - 1] > 0$, so by the paragraph preceding Lemma 7, for sufficiently large ρ, $x = x^*(\theta,\rho)$ is the firm's unique optimum and $\gamma^* > \frac{n-1}{n}\theta x$.

Next, $u = \rho x^\alpha/\alpha = x\cdot\rho x^{\alpha-1}/\alpha \to 0$. Because $0 \le \rho(\partial/\partial\rho)\mathbb{E}[x(1-\tau_i(x))] \le x/\alpha$ (Lemma 3), at the optimum we have $\rho(\partial/\partial\rho)G \to -(v-1)\theta$ and $x(\partial/\partial x)G \to -(\alpha-1)(v-1)\theta$. Implicit differentiation of $G(x;\theta,\rho) = 0$ therefore gives $(\rho/x)(d/d\rho)x \to -1/(\alpha-1)$ and $(\rho/u)(d/d\rho)u = 1+\alpha(\rho/x)(d/d\rho)x \to -1/(\alpha-1)$, so work intensity strictly decreases and mean burnout time $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x)]$ strictly increases in ρ for sufficiently large ρ, by Lemma 3(iv). Lastly, by Lemma 4, $W^*/n = \theta\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)] - \phi^w(1-e^{-u}) - R$ with $R = (1-e^{-u})/\rho + \frac{n-1}{2n}\theta^2\mathrm{Var}(x\tau_i(x))$. Because $u \to 0$, Lemma 3, $(\rho/x)(d/d\rho)x \to -1/(\alpha-1)$, and $\phi^f\rho x^{\alpha-1} \to (v-1)\theta$ imply that $(\rho/\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)])(d/d\rho)\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)] \to -1/(\alpha-1)$ and $\{\rho e^{-u}/(1-e^{-u})\}(d/d\rho)u \to -1/(\alpha-1)$, and that $\phi^w(1-e^{-u})/(\theta x) \to (v-1)\phi^w/(\alpha\phi^f)$, while $(1-e^{-u})/(\rho x) \le x^{\alpha-1}/\alpha \to 0$ and $0 \le (\partial/\partial x)\mathrm{Var}(x\tau_i(x)) \le 2x$ and $|\rho(\partial/\partial\rho)\mathrm{Var}(x\tau_i(x))| \le 4x^2/\alpha$ by Lemma 3. Together with $(\rho/x)(d/d\rho)x \to -1/(\alpha-1)$, the bounds on $(1-e^{-u})/(\rho x)$, $(\partial/\partial x)\mathrm{Var}(x\tau_i(x))$, and $\rho(\partial/\partial\rho)\mathrm{Var}(x\tau_i(x))$ imply $(\rho/x)(d/d\rho)R \to 0$. Therefore,

$$\frac{\rho}{n\theta x}(d/d\rho)W^* \longrightarrow -\frac{1}{\alpha-1}\left(1 - \frac{(v-1)\phi^w}{\alpha\phi^f}\right) < 0.$$

Choosing $\underline{\rho}$ sufficiently large that $(d/d\rho)x^* < 0$, $(d/d\rho)\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x^*)] > 0$, and $(d/d\rho)W^* < 0$ on $(\underline{\rho},\infty)$ proves part (iii).

□

Proof of Corollary 1. By Lemma 7, there exists $\bar\rho > 0$ such that, for every $\rho \in (0,\bar\rho)$ and $\theta \in [1,\theta^m]$, the firm's optimal intensity x^* is the unique root of $G(\cdot\,;\theta,\rho)$ and $(\partial/\partial x)G < 0$ at x^*. Because $(\partial/\partial\theta)G = (v-1) + 2\frac{n-1}{n}\theta\mathbb{E}[x^*(1-\tau_i(x^*))] > 0$, the implicit function theorem gives $(d/d\theta)x^* > 0$. Because mean burnout time strictly decreases in $u = \rho(x^*)^\alpha/\alpha$ (Lemma 3(iv)) and ρ is fixed, $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(x^*)]$ strictly decreases in θ, as desired. □

Lemma 8. *(i) At any fixed exposure $\rho > 0$, the social design chooses*

$$x^S(\rho) = \max\left\{\left[\frac{\theta}{1+\rho\phi^w}\right]^{1/(\alpha-1)}, \left[\frac{v\theta}{1+\rho(\phi^w+\phi^f)}\right]^{1/(\alpha-1)}\right\}. \tag{23}$$

(ii) Its incentive is zero if $\rho[\phi^f - (v-1)\phi^w] \ge v-1$, and strictly positive otherwise.

Proof. (i). By Lemma 6, implementable intensities are those at least $[\theta/(1+\rho\phi^w)]^{1/(\alpha-1)}$. Using Lemmas 3 and 4, the derivative of social welfare per employee with respect to x is

$$e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}\left[v\theta - \{1+\rho(\phi^w+\phi^f)\}x^{\alpha-1}\right].$$

This changes sign once, from positive to negative. Taking the larger of its root and the lower bound on x gives (23).

(ii). Comparing the two terms in (23) gives the stated condition. By Lemma 6, the incentive is zero at the lower bound and positive above it. □

Proof of Proposition 4. (i). Fix θ and $\rho > 0$. We first show that $W(x,\theta,\rho,\gamma(x,\theta,\rho))$ strictly decreases in the implemented intensity x. Fix an implementable intensity $x > [\theta/(1+\rho\phi^w)]^{1/(\alpha-1)}$ and let $\gamma = \gamma(x,\theta,\rho)$. At the symmetric equilibrium, $(\partial/\partial x_i)u_i = 0$ for each employee i. For each coworker $j \neq i$, differentiating expected relative pay conditional on the other employees' outputs, as in the proof of Lemma 1, gives $\partial u_i/\partial x_j = -\frac{\theta}{n}e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}\mathbb{E}[(\gamma - y_i + \bar{y})_+ \mid \tau_j(x) = 1] < 0$, where the inequality is strict because, with positive probability, employee i burns out while all coworkers remain productive, in which case $y_i - \bar{y} < 0$. Also, symmetry gives $\mathbb{E}[y_i - \bar{y}] = 0$, so differentiating (1) with respect to γ yields $\partial u_i/\partial\gamma = \mathbb{E}[(y_i-\bar{y})-(y_i-\bar{y}-\gamma)_+] = -\mathbb{E}[(y_i-\bar{y}-\gamma)_+] \leq 0$. Because $(\partial/\partial x)\gamma(x,\theta,\rho) > 0$ by Lemma 6, we have $\frac{1}{n}(d/dx)W = \sum_{j\neq i}\partial u_i/\partial x_j + (\partial u_i/\partial\gamma)(d/dx)\gamma < 0$.

Next, along $\gamma = \gamma(x,\theta,\rho)$, $\pi = (\pi + W) - W$. If $\gamma^S(\rho) > 0$, then by the proof of Lemma 8, $(d/dx)(\pi+W) > 0$ for $x < x^S(\rho)$ and $(d/dx)(\pi+W) = 0$ at $x = x^S(\rho)$. Since $(d/dx)W < 0$, it follows that $(d/dx)\pi > 0$ for $[\theta/(1+\rho\phi^w)]^{1/(\alpha-1)} < x \leq x^S(\rho)$. Every profit-maximizing intensity therefore exceeds $x^S(\rho)$. If $\gamma^S(\rho) = 0$, every implementable intensity is at least $x^S(\rho)$. The firm's profit objective has a maximum over implementable intensities because, for sufficiently large x, (19) holds, so $\pi/n = \widetilde{P}$, and $(\partial/\partial x)\widetilde{P} = e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}G < 0$ for large x. Lastly, $\gamma^F(\rho) \geq \gamma^S(\rho)$ and $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i^F(\rho)] \leq \mathbb{E}[\tau_i^S(\rho)]$ follow, with strict inequalities when $\gamma^S(\rho) > 0$, because $\gamma(x,\theta,\rho)$ strictly increases in x, while mean burnout time strictly decreases in x at fixed ρ by Lemma 3(iv), proving part (i).

(ii). Set $\underline{\theta} = \min\{2, \theta^m\}$ and fix $\theta \in [1, \underline{\theta}]$.

Step 1. Choose the cost thresholds so that $(v-1)\phi^w \geq \phi^f$ throughout the stated parameter region. By Lemma 8, the intensity that maximizes social welfare at each exposure is then $x^S(\rho) = [v\theta/\{1+\rho(\phi^w+\phi^f)\}]^{1/(\alpha-1)}$. Because $1+\rho(\phi^w+\phi^f) \geq \max\{1, \rho\phi^w\}$, mean burnout time under the social design satisfies $1 - \mathbb{E}[\tau_i^S(\rho)] \leq \rho x^S(\rho)^\alpha/\alpha \leq (v\theta)^{\alpha/(\alpha-1)}/(\alpha\phi^w)$, using $1 - e^{-z} \leq z$ in the expectation formula in Lemma 3(iv). Because $x[1-\tau_j(x)] \leq x$ for each coworker j, the left-hand side of (18) is at least $\gamma - \frac{n-1}{n}\theta x$, so (18) and (23) give $\gamma^S \leq \frac{n-1}{n}\theta x^S + n[(1+\rho\phi^w)(x^S)^{\alpha-1} - \theta]/[(n-1)\theta] \leq \frac{n-1}{n}\theta(v\theta)^{1/(\alpha-1)} + n(v-1)/(n-1)$. Lastly, at $\gamma = \gamma^S(\rho)$, the social value per employee before mitigation spending, $[\Pi^* + W^*]/n$, is at most $v\theta\mathbb{E}[x^S\tau_i(x^S)] \leq v\theta x^S(\rho)$.

Step 2. For every incentive γ and induced intensity x, Lemmas 3 and 4 give

$$\Pi^*/n \leq \widetilde{P}(x;\theta,\rho) \leq (v-1)\theta\mathbb{E}[x\tau_i(x)] + \frac{n-1}{2n}\theta^2\mathbb{E}[(x\tau_i(x))^2] \leq c_\alpha\left[(v-1)\theta\rho^{-1/\alpha} + \theta^2\rho^{-2/\alpha}\right], \tag{24}$$

which does not depend on ϕ^w or ϕ^f and vanishes as $\rho \to \infty$. By Lemma 3 and Assumption 1, $\rho^{1/\alpha}\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(1)]$ converges to a positive constant and $\rho C(\rho) \to 0$ as $\rho \to \infty$, so there exists ρ_0 such that $C(\rho_0) < (v-1)\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(1)]/2$,

where the expectation here and below is evaluated at exposure ρ_0. If $1+\rho_0\phi^w \geq \underline{\theta}+\underline{\theta}^2$, then (19) holds at $(x,\rho)=(1,\rho_0)$, so by Lemmas 6 and 4, and because $\theta \geq 1$, $\left(1-e^{-\rho x^\alpha/\alpha}\right) \leq 1$, and $\mathrm{Var}(x\tau_i(x)) \geq 0$, implementing $x=1$ at exposure ρ_0 yields $\Pi^*/n - C(\rho_0) \geq (v-1)\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(1)] - \phi^f - C(\rho_0) > (v-1)\mathbb{E}[\tau_i(1)]/4 > 0$ for sufficiently small ϕ^f. Lastly, choose $\rho_1 \geq \rho_0$ such that the right-hand side of (24) at $\theta=\underline{\theta}$ is below this positive lower bound for all $\rho > \rho_1$. Note that ρ_1 depends only on $\underline{\theta}$, v, α, and C.

Step 3. For $\rho \in (0,\rho_1]$, we have $\phi^f \max\{\rho,\rho^{1/\alpha}\} \leq \phi^f \max\{\rho_1,\rho_1^{1/\alpha}\}$, so for sufficiently small ϕ^f, Lemma 7 implies that the firm's optimal intensity at exposure ρ is the unique root $x^F(\rho)$ of $G(\cdot\,;\theta,\rho)$, implemented by an incentive greater than $\frac{n-1}{n}\theta x^F(\rho)$, and that the maximized profit per employee, $\widetilde{P}(x^F(\rho);\theta,\rho)$, is continuous in ρ because $(\partial/\partial x)G < 0$ at $x^F(\rho)$. By (24), $2/\alpha < 1$, and $\rho C(\rho) \to \infty$ as $\rho \to 0$, the maximized profit per employee net of mitigation spending, $\widetilde{P}(x^F(\rho);\theta,\rho) - C(\rho)$, converges to $-\infty$ as $\rho \to 0$. By Step 2, implementing $x=1$ at ρ_0 yields greater profit per employee net of mitigation spending than every design with $\rho > \rho_1$. Therefore, profit per employee net of mitigation spending has a maximum, and every maximizing design satisfies $\rho^F \leq \rho_1$ and $\gamma^F > \frac{n-1}{n}\theta x^F$. Lastly, $G(x^F;\theta,\rho^F)=0$ gives $x^F \geq [(v-1)/(\phi^f\rho_1)]^{1/(\alpha-1)}$ and $\rho^F(x^F)^\alpha/\alpha \geq (v-1)x^F/(\alpha\phi^f)$, so $x^F \to \infty$ and $\rho^F(x^F)^\alpha/\alpha \to \infty$ as $\phi^f \to 0$.

Step 4. For $\rho \leq \rho_1$ and $\gamma = \gamma^S(\rho)$, Step 1 and $x^S(\rho) \leq [v\theta/(\rho\phi^w)]^{1/(\alpha-1)}$ give $\rho[(\Pi^*+W^*)/n - C(\rho)] \leq K - \rho C(\rho)$, where $K = (v\underline{\theta})^{\alpha/(\alpha-1)}(\phi^w)^{-1/(\alpha-1)}\rho_1^{(\alpha-2)/(\alpha-1)}$. Because $\rho C(\rho)$ is positive, continuous, and diverges as $\rho \to 0$, it is bounded below by a positive constant on $(0,\rho_1]$, and because ρ_1 does not depend on ϕ^w, $K - \rho C(\rho) < 0$ for all $\rho \leq \rho_1$ when ϕ^w is sufficiently large. As $\rho \to \infty$, $x^S(\rho) \to 0$ and $\rho x^S(\rho)^\alpha \to 0$, so Lemmas 3 and 4 and (23) give $[(\Pi^*+W^*)/n]/[v\theta x^S(\rho)] \to 1 - 1/\alpha$ at $\gamma = \gamma^S(\rho)$, whereas $\rho x^S(\rho) \to \infty$ because $\alpha > 2$, and $\rho C(\rho) \to 0$. Therefore, $(\Pi^*+W^*)/n - C(\rho)$ at $\gamma = \gamma^S(\rho)$ is positive for large ρ and converges to zero as $\rho \to \infty$. The social welfare objective therefore has a maximum. Every maximizing design satisfies $\rho^S > \rho_1 \geq \rho^F$ and has lower mitigation spending, $C(\rho^S) < C(\rho^F)$, because C strictly decreases.

Step 5. Step 3 and Lemma 3(iv) give $\gamma^F > \frac{n-1}{n}\theta x^F \to \infty$ and $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i^F] \to 0$ as $\phi^f \to 0$. Step 1 bounds γ^S independently of ϕ^f and gives $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i^S] \to 1$ as $\phi^w \to \infty$. These bounds hold uniformly over $\theta \in [1,\underline{\theta}]$ and all optimal designs. Together with Step 4, they allow us to choose $\underline{\phi}^w$ large enough and $\overline{\phi}^f$ small enough, with $(v-1)\underline{\phi}^w \geq \overline{\phi}^f$, that $\rho^S > \rho^F$, $\gamma^S < \gamma^F$, and $\mathbb{E}[\tau_i^S] > \mathbb{E}[\tau_i^F]$ throughout the stated parameter region. □